Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Local Conflict Intensity and Public Perceptions of the Police: Evidence from Afghanistan

Short title: Conflict Intensity and Perceptions of the Police

Annekatrin Deglow
Department of Peace and Conflict Research, Uppsala University
Box 514, 751 20 Uppsala, Sweden
annekatrin.deglow@pcr.uu.se (corresponding author)

Ralph Sundberg
Department of Peace and Conflict Research, Uppsala University
Box 514, 751 20 Uppsala, Sweden
ralph.sundberg@pcr.uu.se

March 19, 2020

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Abstract

What are the effects of internal armed conflict on public perceptions of the police? We explore this research question in the context of Afghanistan and argue that local conflict intensity will have a negative impact on how individuals evaluate the police as a key state institution, as it affects both how effective and how just police conduct is at the local level. We evaluate this proposition by employing a multilevel modelling approach that analyzes the effect of local conflict intensity on perceptions of the police among 31,720 Afghans across a sample of 360 districts (2007—2012). Results indicate that the higher local conflict intensity, the less likely individuals are to perceive the police as being effective in fighting crime, procedural just, and trustworthy. Our study contributes to both the political science literature on the institutional consequences of violent conflicts, and to the literature on state-building and institutional legitimacy.

Keywords: Civil war, conflict intensity, public perceptions, police, Afghanistan

Supplementary material for this article is available in the appendix in the online edition. Replication files are available in the JOP Data Archive on Dataverse (https://dataverse.harvard.edu/dataverse/jop).

Annekatrin Deglow received support for this research from the Alice and Knut Wallenberg Academy Fellowship, grant number 2017.0141.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

What are the effects of internal armed conflict on public perceptions of the police? The police as "the most public and visible arm of the state in society" (Mani 1999, 10) are often seen as a key institution to combat insurgencies (Bayley and Perito 2010; Fair and Ganguly 2014; Hills 2012). In the context of internal armed conflict, e.g large-scale dissent in which a non-state actor challenges the government of a state with violent means, the police are given a dual responsibility to both police ordinary crime and to conduct counterinsurgency operations (Ladwig III 2007; Weitzer 1995). Despite the prominent role the police play in such conflicts, and despite increasing interest among scholars in understanding the consequences of violent conflict for public evaluations of state institutions (for instance, Bakke et al. 2014; De Juan and Pierskalla 2016; Grosjean 2014; Hutchison and Johnson 2011; Voors and Bulte 2014; Wig and Tollefsen 2015), we know little about the impact that armed conflicts have on how citizens perceive this particular state institution.

This gap is surprising, as "effective, legitimate police forces are widely viewed as necessary for sustained peace, economic growth, and the rule of law" (Blair, Karim, and Morse 2019). Perceptions of the police have been identified as driving forces for the extent to which citizens turn to and rely on this institution (for instance, Sunshine and Tyler 2003; Tyler 2004; Tyler and Huo 2002). It has also been shown to affect political behaviour, such as citizen's willingness to vote and therefore to "signal compliance with the democratic regime" (Condra et al. 2019). More generally, we know that citizen's interactions with state agencies shape perceptions of the government and state (Lerman and Weaver 2014a, 2014b; Weaver and Lerman 2010). Since the police as "street-level bureaucrats" (Brehm and Gates 1999; Lipsky 1980) are the most visible representation of the state in society (Soss and Weaver 2017), this implies that perceptions of it can translate into perceptions of the state at large. The extent to, and direction in which, conflict affects perceptions of the police should therefore be seen as a crucial determinant for the success of post-conflict state-building and reconstruction (Mani 1999). Understanding how armed conflict shapes citizens' perceptions of the police is therefore relevant for policy making, as it helps tailor postwar police reforms necessary to build viable, democratic, and legitimate states, an effort high on the international community's agenda (cf. Ansorg, Haass, and Strasheim 2016; Call 2002; Goldsmith 2005).

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

To address this gap we theoretically develop and empirically explore how local conflict intensity (the amount of lethal violence within a specific area of a country) affects individual-level perceptions of the police. We merge theoretical insights on the micro-dynamics of civil war with overlooked strands of research: the literature on counterinsurgency and counterterrorism policing, and criminological literature on police legitimacy. We propose that local conflict intensity affects the extent to which policing conduct becomes militarized and takes on counterinsurgency-related purposes, i.e. becomes a policing style that emphasizes combating high-level security threats rather than ordinary crime. This, in turn, affects how severely attitudes towards the police suffer. We further study not only general evaluations in the form of trust or legitimacy, but disaggregate attitudes and theorize how conflict and the subsequent change in policing is likely to shape how effective and just individuals deem the police to be (cf. Jonathan-Zamir, Weisburd, and Hasisi 2014).

We test our propositions on the case of Afghanistan, which displays geographic variation in conflict intensity and offers an opportunity to test local-level hypotheses. It also represents an important class of cases where a state-building exercise runs parallel to a high-intensity armed conflict. Our findings should therefore be informative beyond Afghanistan and shed light on the challenges of building legitimate police and by extension, states, in the aftermath of, and during, armed conflicts. We combine fine-grained data on district-level conflict intensity (measured as fatalities stemming from organized violence; Uppsala Conflict Data Program Georeferenced Event Dataset, UCDP GED) with measurements of individual-level perceptions of the Afghan National Police (ANP) taken from the Asia Foundation's "Survey of the Afghan People" (SoAP; 2007-2012). Using a multilevel modelling approach to 31,720 Afghans across a sample of 360 districts, we find, as hypothesized, that the higher conflict intensity, the less likely individuals are to perceive the police to be effective in fighting crime, just in their conduct, and trustworthy. The findings are robust to a range of model specifications, the inclusion of a large set of controls, and fixed-effects estimation. We further show that unobserved confounders need to be unrealistically strong to drive our results, alleviating concerns about omitted variable bias. Finally, we provide anecdotal evidence that strengthens confidence in the plausibility of the suggested causal mechanism.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Our study makes two contributions: First, a theoretical contribution by specifying the mechanism (change in policing conduct) through which the local experience of conflict might affect public perceptions of policing. Second, we provide, to our best knowledge, the first quantitative study that systematically assesses the consequences of civil war on public attitudes towards the police. We therefore contribute to a more detailed understanding of the consequences of exposure to conflict on citizens' evaluation of the police during armed conflicts. In particular, our findings beg the question whether the involvement of police in counterinsurgency could lead the police to lose the hearts and minds of local populations, rather than winning them (cf. Bayley and Perito 2010). This is an important insight, as less mechanized counterinsurgents, such as the police, are often assumed to be more successful in winning the trust of populations (cf. Lyall and Wilson 2009). The findings also speak to the broader literature on the institutional legacies of violent conflict. The erosion of public perceptions of the police as a result of armed conflict can have long-term consequences for citizens' inclination to comply with rules and regulations set by the state. As such, it can have severe consequences for social, economic, and political stability, as these depend on the population's willingness to support government decisions (De Juan and Pierskalla 2016).

Violent Conflict and Public Perceptions of the Police

Recent years have seen the emergence of a burgeoning literature on the effects of violent conflict on public perceptions of state institutions. Scholars have begun to assess how conflict shapes public perceptions of central and local governments, parliaments, presidents, and courts (Bakke et al. 2014; De Juan and Pierskalla 2016; Gates and Justesen 2016; Hong and Kang 2017; Hutchison and Johnson 2011; Voors and Bulte 2014; Wig and Tollefsen 2015). This literature focuses on the immaterial consequences of armed conflicts (De Juan and Pierskalla 2016), and emerges from a broader research agenda on the consequences of violent conflict for institutional state capacity (Collier et al. 2003; Tilly 1990). Findings remain somewhat ambiguous. While most studies find that violence has a negative effect on public perceptions of several state institutions (De Juan and Pierskalla 2016; Grosjean 2014; Hutchison and Johnson 2011; Voors and Bulte 2014), some find

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

mixed results (Bakke et al. 2014; Gates and Justesen 2016; Hong and Kang 2017).

While these studies focus on several institutions, the police, although a key player during armed conflicts and the most visible state institution for citizens (Mani 1999), have barely been studied. To our best knowledge, only three studies include perceptions of the police as outcomes: Voors and Bulte (2014) find that local-level violence by outsiders in Burundi is negatively associated with public appreciation of the police. Wig and Tollefsen (2015) find a negative, albeit weak, effect of district-level violence on trust in the police in Sub-Saharan Africa, and Bakke et al. (2014) find no evidence that self-reported exposure to wartime violence affects trust in the police in Abkhazia.

While the small number of studies on the police mean that we know little about this topic, there is also a more specific gap: the focus on aggregate perceptions of the police in the form of trust and legitimacy. While general opinions are important, individuals evaluate the police on several dimensions, the most important being whether the police are perceived to be effective in handling crime and whether their conduct is just and fair (Karakus 2017; Sunshine and Tyler 2003; Tankebe 2008, 2009). An understanding of the effects of armed conflict on perceptions of the police therefore warrants the disaggregation of public attitudes. This study contributes by proposing a theoretical argument that illustrates how and why the intensity of armed conflict on the local level affects three specific dimensions of public attitudes towards the police: Effectiveness in dealing with crime, procedural justice (fair and just policing conduct), and overall trust. We build in particular on a study by Jonathan-Zamir, Weisburd, and Hasisi (2014) on the effects of counterterrorism policing on ordinary crime policing and on police-community relations in Israel, but adapt their reasoning to a general civil war setting.

The Role of Local Conflict Intensity and Policing

Why and how should local conflict intensity affect perceptions of the police? We base our argument on the observation that trust and confidence in state institutions are likely to erode as a consequence of violent conflict (Bakke et al. 2014; De Juan and Pierskalla 2016; Hutchison and Johnson 2011). A key component of the modern state is its claim on the monopoly on the legitimate use of force to

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

protect citizens from external and internal threats (Weber 1958). If the state is not able (or willing) to fulfill this core function and thereby communicates low levels of competence (Bakke et al. 2014; De Juan and Pierskalla 2016), public evaluations of the state and its institutions erode (Lake 2010).

The experience of conflict in general might affect how individuals think about the state and its institutions. The spatially segmented nature of conflict implies, however, that perceptions are likely to erode more in areas that are heavily affected by conflict compared to those areas that remain largely or completely untouched (De Juan and Pierskalla 2016). Indeed, previous research on the subnational level shows that the extent to which an area is affected by conflict in the form of fatalities predicts the extent to which appreciation of state institutions wanes (De Juan and Pierskalla 2016; Wig and Tollefsen 2015). Lethal violence can be seen as the most severe manifestation of the extent to which an area is affected by conflict, and is the product of a variety of conflict dynamics, such as clashes between government forces and non-state actors, and violence against civilians. In this study the extent to which an area is affected by these activities will be referred to as "conflict intensity". The more an area is affected by such dynamics, the higher the conflict intensity.

Our focus is on the police, which is one of the few state institutions tasked with new assignments outside regular work in the context of civil wars, and that therefore are likely to change their conduct (Bayley and Perito 2010; Hills 2012). More specifically, they often take on a range of counterinsurgency duties alongside ordinary peacetime work. This conflict-induced change in what the police do, and how they do it, is likely to affect citizens' evaluations, as the police are the most visible institution to citizens (Mani 1999) and work in close proximity to the local population. In particular, we propose that conflict intensity at the local-level affects how effective individuals deem the police to be in fighting ordinary crime, how just they perceive policing conduct to be, and consequently, how trustworthy they think the police are. We deduct three hypotheses:

First, violent conflict poses challenges to the ordinary policing approach—often labeled as "low", "core" or "community" policing—which places emphasis on the provision of services to the population by responding "to the security needs of the public as articulated through their request for help" (Bayley and Perito 2010, 83). The police often become a prime target of insurgent groups

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

as they are regarded as the most visible representation of the state and are tasked with "reproducing the political order that insurgents challenge" (Hills 2012, 98). For instance, in Northern Ireland the police were seen as a "legitimate" target by Republican paramilitaries to remove the threat that they represented (Drake 1998). Similar dynamics can be found in armed conflicts as diverse as those in Nepal, Iraq, Thailand, Yemen and India (Hills 2012; Marks 2003). As a consequence, ordinary policing is likely to become less feasible in high-conflict intensity areas compared to less affected areas, forcing a change in tactics. This often entails a withdrawal of police from the streets and into heavily-guarded barracks, as well as a focus on manning and patrolling strategically-valued checkpoints and locations (Hills 2012). This affects one of the core aspects of ordinary policing: the availability of the police that makes it possible for them to "actively welcome requests for help" (Bayley and Perito 2010, 84). In extreme cases, such as during the early period of the Troubles in Northern Ireland, certain areas of a country can become "no-go zones" that are either not policed at all, or only when the police are heavily armed or accompanied by military escorts (Weitzer 1995). Thus, conflict intensity at the local level can lead to a reduction in ordinary crime policing.

Such a dire security situation not only challenges the feasibility of ordinary crime policing, but also leads to the emergence and/or intensification of a second policing style. During violent conflict, the police often play a dual role in both policing crime and counterinsurgency (Epstein 1968; Fair and Ganguly 2014; Ladwig III 2007; Weitzer 1995). The latter task often becomes prioritized, leading to a shift from "low" to "high policing:" focusing on the protection of national security (Brodeur 1983). As has been discussed in the literature on police involvement in counterterrorism in Western democracies, contexts of heightened insecurity entail a reallocation of resources from ordinary crime control to combating high-level security threats (Bayley and Weisburd 2009; Hasisi, Alpert, and Flynn 2009; Jonathan-Zamir, Weisburd, and Hasisi 2014). Such shifts in policing have also been observed in a range of armed conflicts, including the Huk rebellion in the Philippines in the 1940s (Ladwig III 2007), the Troubles in Northern Ireland (Weitzer 1995), occupied Iraq after de-Baathification (Sherman and Paul 2014) and colonial-era Malaysia (Eck 2018). Where and to what extent these shifts in policing conduct occur at the local level is

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

largely determined by conflict intensity. As Hills (2012, 103) notes: "The critical variable affecting the type of police and style of policing employed is the level of violence in the locality concerned". Thus, the more an area is affected by conflict, the more likely that resources are shifted towards high policing. This shift should further contribute to the erosion of ordinary crime policing resulting, for instance, in long response times to calls for assistance and relative neglect of less severe offenses (cf. Jonathan-Zamir, Weisburd, and Hasisi 2014). As a result, public perceptions of police effectiveness in preventing crime and arresting criminals may deteriorate. Hence, we deduce a first hypothesis: *The higher the conflict intensity at the local level, the less likely is it that individuals perceive the police to be effective in fighting crime (H_1).*

Second, the shift to counterinsurgency policing not only changes what the police do, but also how they do it. High policing and counterinsurgency activities are less transparent and accountable than ordinary crime policing and characterized by more intrusive conduct (cf. Brewer and Magee 1991; Jonathan-Zamir, Weisburd, and Hasisi 2014; Weitzer 1995). This commonly entails a lower emphasis on human rights and "procedural justice," a policing conduct that is perceived as fair and just by the public (Tyler 2003), as positive police-community relations are no longer a priority (Jonathan-Zamir, Weisburd, and Hasisi 2014). In the context of civil wars, examples of intrusive procedures are the unpopular house searches and the heavily militarized policing style during the Troubles in Northern Ireland (Weitzer 1995). As research in this context shows, these types of activities not only take place in high-conflict intensity areas, but also lead to variations in the extent to which conflict affects public perceptions: they severely impact individuals living in areas where they are present, but to a lesser extent individuals residing in areas where they are less so (Weitzer 1995). We therefore deduct a second hypothesis: *The higher the conflict intensity at the local-level, the less likely is it that individuals perceive the police to be procedurally just (H_2).*

Perceptions of police effectiveness and procedural justice have been shown to be among the main drivers of police legitimacy (Sunshine and Tyler 2003; Tankebe 2009; Tyler 2004). If our first two hypotheses hold, we would also expect local conflict intensity to have a general effect on the extent to which individuals trust the police and perceive it to be legitimate (cf. Deglow

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

2016; Jonathan-Zamir, Weisburd, and Hasisi 2014). As existing work on the relationship between conflict and police perceptions focuses on broad concepts such as legitimacy and trust, we deduct a third hypothesis to enhance comparability to previous work:[1] *The higher the conflict intensity experienced by individuals on the local level, the less trust they will have in the police (H_3).*

Finally, it is important to note that we are interested in how conflict intensity, and not direct exposure to violence, affects individual-level perceptions. This focus on intensity rather than on types of violence or the identity of perpetrators makes sense, as we theorize policing conduct to change dependent on overall conflict intensity, and not dependent on the particularities of violence. We therefore do not develop actor-specific hypotheses, e.g. we do not analyze whether the identity of perpetrators affect public perceptions of the police. For an assessment of how such contingencies shape support for Taliban or ISAF troops, see Lyall, Blair, and Imai (2013) and Schutte (2017).

Research design

We chose Afghanistan as a case for two reasons: First, it displays spatial variation on the independent variable: while conflict intensity is relatively high throughout the entire country, it varies substantially across space (Figure 1, online appendix). Southern provinces such as Helmand and Kandahar have seen thousands of fatalities per annum in recent years, while provinces such as Panjshir and Samangan have seen only a few hundred fatalities or less (Sundberg and Melander 2013). Variations are even greater when districts are compared, offering an opportunity to test local-level arguments within one empirical context, avoiding cross-case confounders. Second, the case represents an important class in which a state-building exercise runs parallel to a high-intensity armed conflict. Our findings should therefore be informative for other prominent cases of civil war and state-building and also for understanding the challenges of building legitimate security forces during and after armed conflicts. Before outlining our research design we present a discussion of the ANP and the Afghan conflict to establish background and the applicability of our theory.

[1] We do not focus on whether perceptions of effectiveness in fighting crime and procedural justice predict more general perceptions of the police, but note that when regressing trust in the ANP on effectiveness and procedural justice as independent variables the latter two have positive and statistically significant effects (Table A4, online appendix).

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Afghanistan's Civil War and the Afghan National Police (ANP)

The current civil war in Afghanistan has its roots in the mid-1990s, when the Taliban emerged in southern Afghanistan to combat the mujahideen warlords who had battled for power since the withdrawal of Soviet troops in 1989. From modest beginnings, the Taliban defeated most of the Afghan warlords, captured Kabul in 1996 and by 2001 controlled most Afghan territory. The Taliban government was soon ousted when a multinational coalition led by the U.S. attacked the Taliban over their refusal to surrender al-Qaida fugitives (Bearden 2001; Long 2014). The coalition, together with the warlords who still remained in northern Afghanistan, captured Kabul and drove out the Taliban. A few years of relative calm followed during which the international community and NATO forces (International Security Assistance Force, ISAF) began a state-building exercise to restructure the country. However, the Taliban re-entered southern Afghanistan from their remaining strongholds and safe havens in Pakistan. Full-scale armed conflict resumed again in 2005, mainly fought between the Taliban and NATO-supported government forces (Long 2014). Despite the government's strengthened police and army, supported by more than 100,000 international soldiers at times, the Taliban have continuously expanded their insurgency, spreading the war from earlier focal points in the south and south-east to encompass vast swathes of Afghanistan. Since 2015 onwards the insurgency has reached new heights, claiming tens of thousands deaths yearly.

The ANP emerged from the state-building exercise that followed the ousting of the Taliban and has little institutional relationships to previous police forces (Giustozzi and Isaqzadeh 2013; Long 2014). After the fall of the Taliban, no civilian police force serving the central government existed (Bayley and Perito 2010, 19). Under the supervision of first Germany and later the U.S., the ANP was built from scratch from 2002 onwards. While the ANP in comparison to many other police forces has been militarized since inception, the years up until 2007 saw police training that focused on conventional, rather than counterinsurgency policing. With the U.S. assuming the primary responsibility for training and the war spreading with regards to both geography and intensity, more emphasis was placed on counterinsurgency policing (Cordesman, Mausner, and Kasten 2009). Throughout the period we study (2007-2012) the ANP has comprised several branches. The vast

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

majority of ANP personnel are, however, AUP (Afghan Uniformed Police) patrolmen: the kind of police citizens are most likely to encounter and who are deployed in all of Afghanistan's districts (Cordesman, Mausner, and Kasten 2009; Kelly, Bensahel, and Oliker 2011; Skinner 2008).

Despite rounds of reforms most analysts agree that the state of the ANP in terms of professionalism is poor. Some of the most severe problems include corruption, illiteracy, lack of training, drug abuse, and heavy dependence on international support (Long 2014; Skinner 2008). Police and centralization reforms also created a need to place warlord-governors under central government control, entailing a partial "regionalization" of the ANP as it came under the influence of provincial power brokers who, at times, staffed it with their own loyalists (Bayley and Perito 2010; Böhnke, Koehler, and Zürcher 2017). A situation in which national police are not full agents of the state may be problematic for our argument about the police's mission to legitimize the state. Together with the fact that Afghanistan has experienced a protracted civil war it could be argued that Afghans are likely to have low expectations of the police. While this might be true, we believe that our theory is applicable to the Afghan case: First, although strongmen wield much influence in Afghanistan, provincial governors are not autonomous actors within the police sphere. The ANP are controlled mainly by the central state (the Ministry of Interior, to which police chiefs also report), which is responsible for appointing provincial and district police chiefs (Long 2014). Although some governors staff regional police forces with loyalists, Kabul has been no stranger to removing or replacing police chiefs and commanders if these act against government policies (Mukhopadhyay 2014). Thus, although strongmen are a relevant actors in provincial politics, they do not have free reign over the ANP. Second, a regional strongman will be interested in upholding the monopoly of violence in his area of control (Blair and Kalmanovitz 2016; Jackson 2003; Malejacq 2016). Warlords face and try to resolve the same set of issues as states: uphold certain basic rights, though often fewer, and gain popular support (Blair and Kalmanovitz 2016). Even though regional power brokers may control parts of the ANP, the police is likely to still be used to uphold the monopoly on violence and win legitimacy. Third, Afghans are no stranger to the existence of state structures and what to expect from these. As Böhnke, Koehler, and Zürcher (2017, 97; see

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

also Bayley and Perito 2010, Skinner 2008) argue: "Only under the rarest of circumstances will the population expect anything less than some basic level of services from the state, mainly security". The SoAP also demonstrates that Afghans do not necessarily have negative views of state security forces and understand their purpose: In 2014 the ANP was the most frequently named actor deemed responsible for security at the village level.[2] Thus, even in the light of perpetual conflict and regionalization of policing, we deem Afghanistan to be a suitable case.

Unit of analysis

To empirically test our hypotheses we use the individual (nested in districts) as our unit of analysis, utilizing a survey conducted by the Asia Foundation: the "Survey of the Afghan People." The SoAP is Afghanistan's most comprehensive longitudinal public opinion survey, conducted annually since 2006. For our dataset we make use of five survey waves between 2008 and 2012: the only waves that contain all three measurements used as dependent variables. The SoAP targets all Afghans aged 18 years and above, and employs a stratified multi-stage random sampling procedure. It covers all of Afghanistan's 8 regions and 34 provinces and selects primary sampling units (districts) based on probability proportional to size random sampling. Within each district it chooses settlements (villages in rural areas, neighborhoods in urban areas) as secondary sampling units based on simple random sampling. Households are chosen based on random walks and individuals within households are selected using Kish grids. Interviews are conducted face-to-face and are gender-matched to meet cultural requirements. The SoAP's sampling procedure is thus similar to other large-scale surveys conducted in conflict-affected areas, such as the Afrobarometer.

For the years covered in this study (2008-2012), our samples include 255, 269, 270, 262 and 301 out of Afghanistan's 398 official districts, respectively, resulting in a total of 31,720 individuals nested in 360 distinct districts.[3] While 164 (46%) districts are sampled in all five years, 56 (16%)

[2]Based on the Asia Foundation: http://surveys.asiafoundation.org/Dashboard?SurveyCode=AGSAP&SampleName=GP&SectionName=Default&LanguageName=English#Dashboard-1

[3]The sample originally includes 362 districts. We omit one district due to missing values on population size, and one due to missing data on opium cultivation. Note that the SoAP does not interview the same individuals across waves.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

are sampled in four, 65 (18%) in three, 43 (12%) in two and 32 (9%) in one year. In each year settlements, and at times, districts, are replaced for security reasons, for instance if fighting is too intense for enumerators to travel to these areas, or if areas are under Taliban control. This sometimes means that female enumerators cannot travel to selected settlements, districts or provinces and that interviews with females are moved to either safer areas or that no females are sampled for a given settlement/district/province and year. In our sample, 40 out of 360 districts have no female respondents. To account for whether these security-related challenges bias our results, we conduct two tests. First, we compare the districts being sampled to those not being sampled for each year separately to check whether our sample systematically excludes highly conflict-affected districts. We find that even though districts are replaced each year due to the security situation, this does not truncate our sample towards less conflict-affected districts. Furthermore, our sample includes both districts with very low and very high conflict intensity, providing us with a relevant cross-section.

Second, since women might perceive both conflict intensity and trust in the police differently than men, and at times are excluded, we run our main analysis on a subsample of females only. The results are reported in the online appendix (Table A6) and are robust. Since the relationship does not seem to differ in this subsample, the fact that female respondents are missing in some districts should be seen as less problematic. These two tests indicate that while our sample is not strictly representative, and generalizations to the entire Afghan population must be made with caution, we are confident that our analysis covers a relevant cross-section of both Afghan citizens and districts.

Dependent variables

We use three dependent variables to evaluate our hypotheses. The selection of survey items is based on a factor analysis (Table A3,online appendix.) For hypothesis 1 we measure perceptions of police effectiveness in fighting crime using a survey item that asks respondents to evaluate the following statement: "The ANP is efficient at arresting those who have committed crimes so that they can be brought to justice". Interviewees are given four response options: "Strongly agree, agree somewhat, disagree somewhat, strongly disagree". This item taps into an important component of police effectiveness as it enquires directly into the efficiency of arrests and justice,

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

and overlaps with elements of established measurements of this concept (Karakus 2017; Sunshine and Tyler 2003). For hypothesis 2 we measure procedural justice using a survey item with the following statement: "The ANP is honest and fair with Afghan people". The same four response options as above are given. This question captures one of the core components of procedural justice as it enquires about honesty and fairness in police conduct and is similar to other established measurements (Sunshine and Tyler 2003; Tankebe 2008). Finally, regarding hypothesis 3, we measure trust in the police by using responses to the following question: "Please tell me how much trust you have in each of the institutions and organizations and officials to perform their jobs. Do you have a great deal of trust, a fair amount of trust, not very much trust, or no trust at all in the Afghan National Police?." We reverse code this variable, e.g. increasing scores indicate increasing levels of trust. For an overview of survey items and coding see Table A1 (online appendix).

For the main analysis of our dependent variables we rely on dichotomous indicators where we collapse the two positive (strongly agree, agree somewhat/a great deal of trust, a fair amount of trust) and the two negative evaluations (strongly disagree, disagree somewhat/not very much trust, no trust at all) of the police into single categories. From a theoretical perspective, we deem the shift from a positive attitude to a negative attitude to be of greater interest than shifts within such categories as they demonstrate a substantial change in attitudes.

Independent variable

For our independent variable we use the UCDP GED (Sundberg and Melander 2013), which contains spatially and temporally disaggregated data on fatalities caused by organized violence. We trim the global dataset to cover Afghanistan between 2007-2012. We construct our independent variable as a measurement of individual-level exposure to conflict intensity at the district level by matching the district in which the individual respondent was sampled with the UCDP GED's event locations (see the online appendix for more information). We restrict our selection of violent events to include only government-insurgent fighting and insurgent violence against civilians. These two types of violent dynamics are those most likely to spark shifts towards counterinsurgency policing, rather than, for instance, inter-rebel violence (see the online appendix for a description of the type

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

of fatalities included, and discussion on alternative data sources). Using these restrictions we construct a variable that provides information on the number of fatalities that an individual has been exposed to in the district it is living in the 12 months leading up to the survey interview. Thus, the variable captures the conflict intensity in each respondent's spatial and temporal vicinity. Since the date of interviews differs slightly across individuals within districts, the exact number of fatalities that individuals within the same district are exposed to also varies.

We deem the extracted data from the UCDP GED to be a valid measure of 'conflict intensity'. For one, the GED is not restricted to one specific form of violence (such as insurgent-initiated fighting), but captures a range of violent processes conducted by organized groups and the state. It is thus focused on the dynamics that aggregate to 'conflict' or 'civil war' and captures variations in this phenomenon across space and time. Second, the UCDP GED, unlike many other data sources, allows to easily estimate the number of fatalities per district instead of focusing on the number of violent interactions occurring. This is important to gauge conflict intensity, as a counts of the number of events registered should not only be more susceptible to reporting bias, but also risks equating high intensity with low intensity events (Eck 2012). Finally, Gehring, Langlotz, and Kienberger (2018) demonstrate that UCDP GED data overlap well with subjective conflict indicators in Afghanistan, giving credit to its use as an indicator of conflict intensity, while also being geographically accurate enough to use for analysis at the district-level (Weidman 2015).

Individual- and District-Level Control Variables

To control for confounders and obtain more precise estimates we include a set of common individual-level (level 1) covariates that are either likely to affect both our dependent and independent variables, or to explain substantial variation in our outcome. These include *age* (continuous), *gender* (dichotomous), *education* (categorical), *income* (categorical), and *urban/rural residency* (dichotomous). Since districts can be large geographical units, we further include *radio ownership* (dichotomous) to control for the likelihood that individuals receive information about conflict in their districts. To control for previous exposure to conflict intensity, we include $\textit{conflict intensity}_{t-12month}$ by constructing a variable that is identical to conflict intensity, but that sums the total amount of

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

lethal violence that an individual is exposed to on the district level 12 months prior to counting our main conflict intensity variable. We include two additional controls that have been identified by the case literature as crucial for public perceptions of the ANP and as possible grievances for insurgent participation: $ethnicity_{individual}$ (dichotomous, measuring if the respondent was Pashtun or not) and *ANP corruption* (categorical, measuring if, in the last year, an individual had been asked for a bribe by the ANP). All individual-level covariates are from the SoAP dataset.

At the district level (level 2), we control for *district population* (logged and time-invariant, based on 2015 estimates from the Afghan Central Statistics Organization). We further control for hectares of land used for *opium cultivation* per district (United Nations Office on Drugs and Crime, Opium Survey 2012; UNODC 2013), as it is likely to be correlated with both perceptions of the ANP (Bayley and Perito 2010) and conflict intensity (Gehring, Langlotz, and Kienberger 2018; Hultman 2012; Lind, Moene, and Willumsen 2014). Finally, we include a measure of the *percentage of Pashtuns* across the population of each district to account for the fact that the Taliban insurgency mainly takes place in Pashtun-dominated areas (Hultman 2012) and that the ANP has an underrepresentation of Pashtuns in its ranks, which may decrease trust and confidence in the force (Cordesman, Mausner, and Kasten 2009; Long 2014). As census data on ethnic composition at the district level is not available, we construct this variable by summing the proportion of Pashtuns surveyed within each district and year. Table A1 in the online appendix shows the wording of the survey items, and Table A2 displays descriptive statistics for all variables included in the analysis.

Statistical Approach

To accommodate the nested nature of our data we test our hypotheses using multilevel models. This is the most suitable choice as we cannot assume that observations in the same district are independent of each other, meaning that residuals are likely to be correlated, which violates the assumption of error independence underlying ordinary pooled regression (Gelman and Hill 2006). Both likelihood-ratio tests and the intra-class correlation coefficient based on the null models (including the random intercept, but no predictors) indicate substantial clustering: 18% of the variance in police effectiveness is accounted for by between-district differences, as is 27% of procedural jus-

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

tice and 28% of trust in the police. This indicates that multilevel models are preferable.

We make use of a two-level model in which individuals (level 1) are nested in districts (level 2). We apply random intercepts at the district level (the primary sampling unit) to account for unobserved historical, political, social, economic and/or cultural characteristics that individuals within the same district share and that are likely to make them more similar to each other than to individuals in other districts. Random intercepts have the additional advantage of being able to handle both unbalanced sample sizes and independent variables that vary little within clusters as they partially pool information across groups, in our case districts (Clark and Linzer 2015; Gelman and Hill 2006). This is relevant as the sampling procedure described above leads to certain districts having small sample sizes, while other districts very large (min=5; max=3,461)[4]. Our main independent variable, conflict intensity, further displays little or no variation across individuals in some districts, but varies substantially in others. Given the dichotomous nature of our dependent variables, we employ a logistic multilevel model. We include dummies that indicate the survey wave in which each individual has been interviewed to account for wave effects. This benchmark model is shown in equation 1 in the online appendix. While multilevel models allow us to take the nature of our data fully into account, a disadvantage with these types of models is that they make strong assumptions that are rarely met (Clark and Linzer 2015). Since a Hausman test indicates that our models violate the orthogonality assumption, and the random intercepts diverge from the normal distribution, we show in the online appendix that our findings remain when using logistic regressions with district-level fixed effects as an alternative approach to clustering (Table A12).

Empirical Results

Table 1 shows the results for hypothesis 1, 2, and 3. For each hypothesis, we run three different models: a bivariate model, a model adding the individual-level controls, and a full model with both individual- and district-level controls. All models display coefficients in log-odds. Models 1, 2, and 3 test hypothesis 1 with individual-level evaluations of police effectiveness as the dependent variable. Conflict intensity is statistically significant ($p < 0.001$) across all three models, with

[4]The largest sample is for Kabul City district. The results remain robust when excluding this district

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

the expected negative sign. This lends support to our hypothesis that individuals living in districts with higher conflict intensity also display a lower likelihood of perceiving the police to be effective. Interpreting Model 3 in substantial terms indicates that increasing conflict intensity from the minimum to the maximum observed value (0 to 314 fatalities), while holding continuous control variables at their mean and categorical ones at their mode, decreases the predicted probability of an individual perceiving the police to be effective by 45% (34 percentage points) from 75% to 41%. Figure 1 visualizes these predicted probabilities in separate plots (one per dependent variable).

Turning to hypothesis 2, Models 4, 5 and 6 test the effects of conflict intensity on perceptions of police procedural justice (whether the police are perceived as fair and just). Conflict intensity is statistically significant ($p < 0.001$) across all models, with the expected negative sign. Interpreting the full model (M6) in substantial terms shows that a change in conflict intensity from the minimum to the maximum value (0 to 314 fatalities) decreases the predicted probability of an individual perceiving the police to be procedurally just by 22% (19 percentage points), i.e. from 86% to 67%. Control variables are set to their mean if continuous, and to their mode if categorical.

Recall that we argued that if conflict intensity reduces public perceptions of police effectiveness and procedural justice, it follows that overall trust in the police should suffer, too. Models 7, 8 and 9 therefore test hypothesis 3, i.e. the effect of conflict intensity on individual-level trust in the ANP. In line with our expectations, conflict intensity is statistically significant ($p < 0.001$) across all models and exerts a negative effect. That is, individuals living in districts with higher conflict intensity, all else equal, have a lower likelihood of trusting the police. When increasing conflict intensity from the minimum to the maximum observed value (0 to 314 fatalities), individual-level trust decreases by 23% (19 percentage points), i.e. from 84% to 65% (based on M9). Thus, as expected, exposure to local conflict intensity is negatively correlated with individual-level perceptions of how effective, just, and trustworthy the police are. While the predicted probabilities indicate that individuals across all districts have a relatively high probability of perceiving the police to be effective, procedurally just, and trustworthy, the impact that increasing conflict intensity from the minimum to the maximum value (by 314 fatalities) has on how individuals evaluate this

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

state institution is with 41%, 22%, and 23%, respectively, quite substantive. Interestingly, conflict intensity correlates most strongly with perceptions of effectiveness, indicating that public perceptions of the extent to which the police can deal with ordinary crime suffer the most.

Some of our substantive controls assert statistically significant effects. In all full models (3, 6, and 9), the percentage of Pashtuns in a district has the expected negative effect on perceptions of the police. This indicates that the police are evaluated on average more negatively as the percentage of the Pashtun population increases. Individuals who have experienced a high level of police corruption (Table A5, online appendix) are also less likely to perceive the police as being effective, just and trustworthy compared to those having experienced less, or no corruption, as expected.

Our results remain the same across robustness tests (Table A6 to A12, online appendix). The hypotheses remain supported by negative and statistically significant effects on the dependent variables when using multilevel ordinal logistic regressions to alleviate concerns that collapsing our dependent variable drives the results; when constructing the independent variable in alternative ways; when using district-level fixed effects as an alternative approach to account for clustering and unobserved heterogeneities across districts; and when changing the temporal vicinity of our independent variable in relation to the survey interview date.

Extended Analysis and Discussion

There are five considerations related to our findings that warrant further analysis: reverse causality, omitted variable bias, preference falsification, alternative explanations, and the plausibility of our suggested causal process. First, reverse causality is a concern when studying the effects of conflict on attitudes. Not only is conflict intensity likely to affect perceptions of the police, but these perceptions can also shape how conflict-affected an area is.[5] In the absence of a reliable instrument for local conflict intensity, we try to remedy these concerns by measuring our independent variable

[5]The absence of state forces in rural areas of eastern/southern Afghanistan after the fall of the Taliban regime facilitated the emergence of insurgents that took advantage of local dissatisfaction with the absence of state service provision (Jones 2008; Maloney 2008). Lyall, Blair, and Imai 2013 show how public support for ISAF predicts where and how often insurgent attacks occur. This logic could be extended to evaluations of the ANP and conflict intensity.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table 1 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level.

	Effectiveness			Proc. justice			Trust		
	M1	M2	M3	M4	M5	M6	M7	M8	M9
Conflict intensity	−0.006***	−0.005***	−0.005***	−0.005***	−0.004***	−0.004***	−0.005***	−0.004***	−0.004***
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)		−0.001**	−0.001**		−0.001	−0.001		−0.002***	−0.002***
		(0.000)	(0.000)		(0.001)	(0.001)		(0.000)	(0.000)
Age		0.002*	0.002*		0.002	0.002		0.003*	0.003*
		(0.001)	(0.001)		(0.001)	(0.001)		(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender		−0.293***			−0.496***	−0.498***		−0.299***	−0.300***
		(0.032)			(0.040)	(0.040)		(0.038)	(0.038)
Pashtun		−0.098*	−0.006		−0.241***	−0.094		−0.241***	−0.042
		(0.044)	(0.052)		(0.054)	(0.064)		(0.053)	(0.062)
Radio ownership		0.047	0.052		0.175***	0.185***		0.105*	0.117*
		(0.040)	(0.040)		(0.049)	(0.049)		(0.048)	(0.048)
Rural/urban residency		0.107	0.105		0.107	0.102		0.134	0.127
		(0.071)	(0.071)		(0.088)	(0.088)		(0.084)	(0.084)
Opium (hectar district)			0.006			0.009			−0.015
			(0.014)			(0.017)			(0.016)
Ethnicity (perc. district)			−0.312***			−0.512***			−0.691***
			(0.094)			(0.118)			(0.114)
Population size (logged)			0.050			0.090			0.023
			(0.044)			(0.054)			(0.056)
Constant	1.148***	0.970***	0.808***	1.630***	1.325***	1.025***	1.743***	1.193***	1.302***
	(0.056)	(0.114)	(0.246)	(0.070)	(0.135)	(0.302)	(0.072)	(0.133)	(0.310)
Observations (individuals)	31720	31720	31720	31720	31720	31720	31720	31720	31720
No. of districts	360	360	360	360	360	360	360	360	360
AIC	34413.860	34059.682	34053.423	25818.919	25352.441	25336.824	26963.715	26475.751	26444.122
BIC	34472.413	34310.623	34329.458	25877.472	25603.382	25612.859	27022.268	26726.692	26720.157

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$
Coefficients reported as log-odds. Control variables with more than two categories are omitted due to space, and can be found in the appendix.
Reference categories for binary variables are: Gender=female, pashtun=other than Pashtun, radio ownership=no, rural/urban residency=rural.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

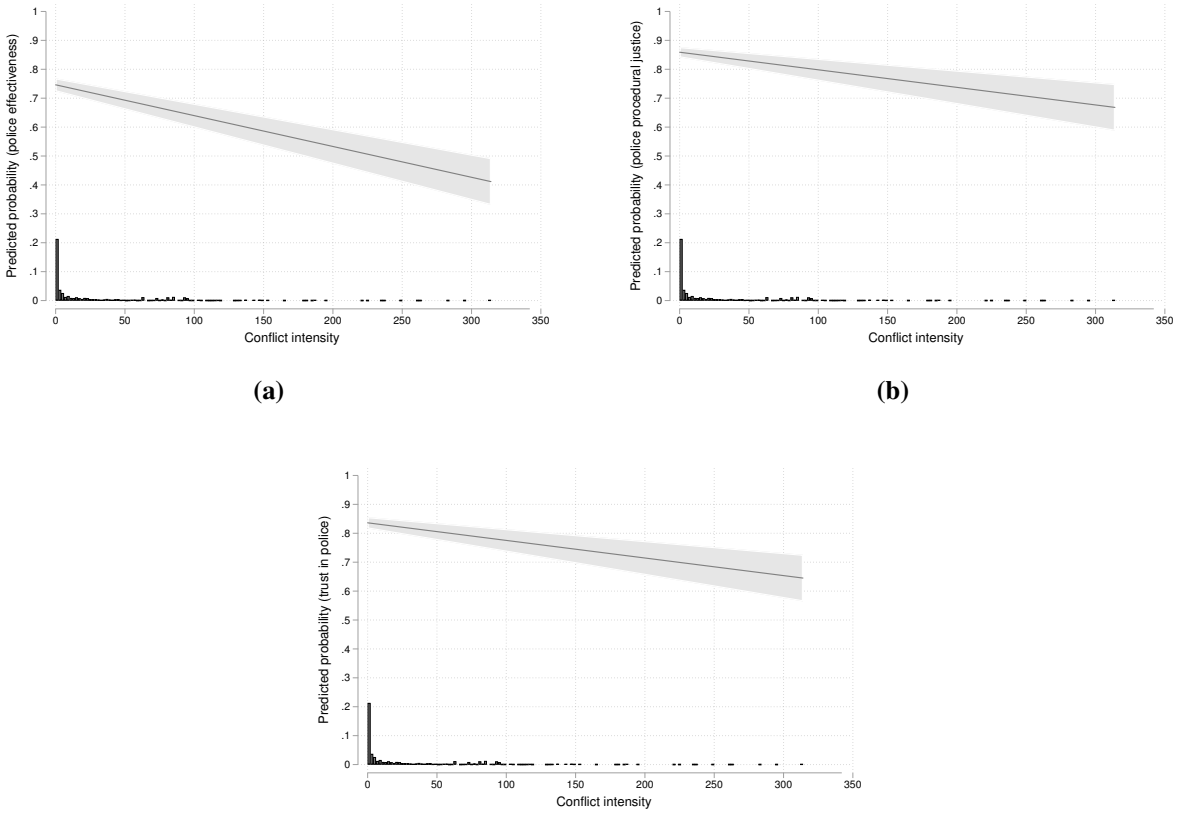

Figure 1: The predicted probability of individuals perceiving the police to be effective (panel (a), based on Model 3), procedural just (panel (b), based on Model 6) and trustworthy (panel (c), based on Model 9) as conflict intensity (number of fatalities) increases from the minimum (0) to the maximum (314) observed value. Reported are 95% confidence intervals. All continuous control variables are set to their mean, while categorical control variables are set to their mode value. The distribution of conflict intensity is superimposed on the x-axis.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

prior to our dependent variable.[6] While this does not eliminate threats to inference, it strengthens our belief that conflict intensity has an independent effect on perceptions of the police.

Second, we cannot exclude a violation of the "no-omitted confounder" assumption, as unobserved factors might shape both conflict intensity and perceptions of police. While our robustness test presents findings from district-level fixed-effects estimation, accounting for unobserved heterogeneities across districts, we cannot exclude that there are unobserved heterogeneities within districts—such as across villages—that make the identified relationships spurious. To account for this possible threat we follow recent work on the effect of conflict on individual-level attitudes (Henrich et al. 2019) and calculate Altonji ratios (Altonji, Elder, and Taber 2005). We assess how strong an unobserved confounder would need to be in relation to included control variables to explain away the effect of conflict intensity on public perceptions. We rerun our main models (M3, M6 and M9) as linear probability models with the binary outcomes for police effectiveness, procedural justice and trust. We first run a restricted model that only includes our main variable of interest (conflict intensity), as well as the survey wave dummies and district-level fixed effects. We then run a full model including in addition all individual- and district-level controls from the main analysis. Based on these two models the calculated Altonji ratios indicate that unobserved confounders would need to be 11.70 (effectiveness), 9.55 (procedural justice) and 4.74 (trust) times stronger than all of our control variables combined (see Table A11 and discussion in the online appendix). Given that these models both include fixed effects, a substantive set of demographic, geographic and socio-economic controls, we deem severe omitted variable bias concerns unlikely.

Third, any study relying on direct survey responses to sensitive questions in civil war contexts is confronted with the issue of social desirability bias and preference falsification (cf. Lyall, Blair, and Imai 2013; Matanock and García-Sánchez 2018). That is, in contexts of prolonged counterin-

[6]Instruments for violence intensity in Afghanistan (such as wind conditions or nighttime cloud coverage (Condra et al. 2018)) are not suitable for our study. They require measuring the variables of interest as averages across short time periods, e.g. weeks or days. As the SoAP conducts surveys once a year and we have no temporal variation in our dependent variable, we cannot employ such instruments. It is also unlikely that the exclusion criteria holds. Weather conditions can affect perceptions of the police through other channels, such as local availability of police.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

surgency operations such as Afghanistan, individuals might not dare reveal negative perceptions of the police out of fear of being identified as a potential insurgent sympathizer (Matanock and García-Sánchez 2018). With regard to our study, this would imply that the higher conflict intensity in a district—and logically the more counterinsurgency operations—the less likely should individuals be to report negatives perceptions of police. Given that we find the opposite effect we can assume that if at all, preference falsification biases our results downwards. Of course, in areas under absolute insurgent control we might expect that individuals are more fearful of insurgents identifying them as government supporters (Matanock and García-Sánchez 2018). In such areas, we would expect individuals to falsify their preferences by reporting lower levels of police perceptions. However, the SoAP does not survey districts that are under full Taliban control and our findings thus cannot be driven by such individuals. We also assessed whether individuals belonging to societal groups that are likely to be perceived as Taliban supporters, and therefore have incentives to falsify their preferences, report on average better perceptions of the police. We use ethnic identity as a crude proxy, and compare Pashtuns (potentially more likely to be perceived as Taliban supporters) to non-Pashtuns. We find that Pashtuns report on average worse perceptions of the police, again not indicating preference falsification (see Table A15 in the online appendix). Additionally, we tested whether individuals that were highly affected by conflict (i.e. the top 5% most affected individuals exposed to a fatality count of 94-314) opted more often to not answer questions about perceptions of the police compared to those not affected (i.e. zero fatality exposure). We find this not to be the case (see Table A14 and more detailed discussion in the online appendix). A final concern related to preference falsification might be that our binary measures indicate quite positive perceptions of the police (0.73 for effectiveness, 0.84 for procedural justice and 0.84 for trust), despite a common understanding of the ANP as being corrupt and dysfunctional. Worth noting here is that the average response on the original ordinal scale indicates that respondents "somewhat agree" with the ANP being effective in fighting crime and procedural just, and report "a fair amount of" trust. Our dichotomization thus portrays Afghans as more positive towards the police than does the more fine grained original measure. While we can only speculate,

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

this rating might indicate a more general accuracy problem not uncommon to direct survey measures, suggesting that our findings should not be taken as absolute measures of police perceptions, but rather be seen as informative in terms of the direction and magnitude of the effect.

Fourth, there is a set of alternative explanations for our identified relationship that our main models do not account for. First, our results may be driven by negative perceptions of ISAF troops and/or government institutions. These perceptions could either be confounding variables that lead to both higher conflict intensity, and lower perceptions of the police; or they could be inherently related to perceptions of the police in that the latter is a mere proxy for perceptions of government institutions and international troops more generally. We therefore include perceptions of the central and local government (for the full sample) and ISAF troops (for a subsample 2011-2012) in additional robustness tests. These are reported in Table A16 and A17 in the online appendix and indicate that this alternative explanation is unlikely to produce our results: conflict intensity continues to have a negative and statistically significant effect on perceptions of the police.

A second alternative explanation focuses on the differing effects of conflict intensity depending on civilian loyalties. For instance, if civilians are close to insurgents, higher conflict intensity might lead to more negative perceptions of the police via a different mechanism than the one suggested in this paper (such as displeasure with casualties stemming from government-insurgent interactions). If this was true, we would expect to observe a negative effect of conflict intensity only for those individuals that hold anti-government attitudes, but not for those that are pro-government. While we lack the necessary data to adjudicate perfectly between pro-government and pro-insurgent civilians, we can proxy this via perceptions of the government and ethnicity. We thus run our main models on a split sample of individuals that are either pro-government or anti-government, while controlling for whether or not an individual is Pashtun (and therefore might be more likely to be a Taleban supporter). The results in Table A18 and detailed discussion thereof in the online appendix indicate that there is little reason to be concerned about civilian loyalties accounting for our results.

Finally, it might be that conflict intensity leads to lower perceptions of the police not because of a shift in policing conduct, but because it leads to more ordinary crime, which in turn reduces per-

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

ceptions of police performance. We therefore assessed whether conflict intensity in the 12 months prior to the survey interviews (t_{-1}) predicts levels of crime at the time of the survey interviews (t). Due to a lack of reliable crime statistics for Afghanistan we rely on self-reported crime exposure from the SoAP. We find that conflict intensity does not lead to more crime exposure, which is contrary to the suggested alternative explanation (see Table A19, online appendix). In sum, we find little to no empirical evidence speaking in favor of alternative explanations.

The last issue relates to the plausibility of our suggested argument. We provide some case study evidence in line with our theorized causal story, showing that it is plausible and could explain the negative correlation between conflict intensity and perceptions of the police. In line with our argument, there is evidence that the ANP assumes a dual role in policing ordinary crime and in counterinsurgency. The tasks the ANP are supposed to cover range "from fierce border fighting to low-level village land disputes" (Cordesman, Mausner, and Kasten 2009, 114). However, experts on Afghanistan have noted that counterinsurgency-related tasks outweigh ordinary crime policing:

> We have built the Afghan police into a less well-armed, less well-trained version of the Army and launched them into operations against the insurgents. Meanwhile, nobody is doing the job of actual policing—rule of law, keeping the population safe from all comers (including friendly fire and coalition operations), providing justice and dispute resolution, and civil and criminal law enforcement (Packer 2008, interview with David Kilcullen).

While the police generally seem to focus on counterinsurgency, there is also evidence that local conflict intensity shapes the ability of the police to engage in ordinary policing. With regard to police effectiveness, Giustozzi and Isaqzadeh (2013, 41–42) note that from 2006–2007 "the spread of the insurgency meant that whereas it had previously been possible to patrol rural areas in small groups of one or two policemen, it became very difficult to carry out any patrol afterwards. Most police stations in the affected areas could only patrol within a range of a few kilometers from the district centre, particularly if not assisted by ISAF". Insurgents frequently attacked the police, which they saw as a soft target (Sedra 2017, 187), making regular policing activities in affected areas difficult. By 2007, approximately 70% of policing time was spent on counterinsurgency

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

vis-a-vis ordinary law enforcement (Skinner 2008). Because of the security situation, core/low policing was therefore neither possible in heavily affected areas, nor prioritized. Instead, the ANP were supposed to accompany international troops and the ANA in counterinsurgency operations and were expected to hold and build previously Taliban-controlled territory (Bayley and Perito 2010, 28). In line with the primacy of high policing, a minimal amount of police training focused on teaching skills within the sphere of low policing, with large segments of training being oriented towards combat skills (Cordesman, Mausner, and Kasten 2009).

Regarding procedural justice, the ANP is not only militarized and focused on counterinsurgency, but also unaccountable. It is known to accompany its house searches with theft of property, reducing trust among local populations (Bayley and Perito 2010). Due to poor oversight, human rights abuses and corruption seem to be prevalent where security is low (e.g conflict intensity is high), illustrating breakdowns in procedural justice (Cordesman, Mausner, and Kasten 2009). While we do not claim that evidence provided proves the causal story, we are confident that it gives credit to our argument that local conflict intensity shapes perceptions of the police in Afghanistan.

Conclusions

We have argued that local conflict intensity undermines attitudes towards the police, as it leads to militarized and counterinsurgency-focused policing. Building on the criminological literature on counterinsurgency/counterterrorism policing and police legitimacy, we proposed that conflict intensity shapes how effective in fighting crime, just, and trustworthy individuals perceive the police to be. Using fine-grained data on individual-level exposure to district-level conflict intensity and survey responses of 31,720 Afghans for 2007-2012, we find that conflict intensity is indeed related to reduced individual perceptions of police effectiveness, procedural justice and trust.

This study makes two contributions: First, by specifying the mechanism (the change in policing conduct) through which the local experience of conflict can shape attitudes towards several dimensions of policing, we contribute to a more detailed theoretical understanding of the processes that link armed conflict to the erosion of public attitudes towards the police. Our findings beg the ques-

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

tion whether the current default of making the police focus on counterinsurgency may actually be counterproductive, entailing problems for any strategy of "winning hearts and minds" (Bayley and Perito 2010). While counterinsurgency can be a legitimate endeavor for states to enforce their monopoly on the use of force, and the involvement of the police as the institution closest to citizens is logical, the primacy of counterinsurgency in policing during conflict may well achieve the opposite of such a strategy, namely that the police lose hearts and minds. This is of concern especially since that very same institution will be tasked with ordinary law enforcement in the aftermath of conflict. To what extent it will be able to do so in the light of reduced public trust is questionable. For instance, a lack of trust and confidence in the police might lead citizens to push for the involvement of alternative coercive actors—both within (Pion-Berlin and Carreras 2017), and outside the state apparatus (Topping and Byrne 2012)—in law enforcement. The destructive consequences for the polices' ability to provide public security in the aftermath of conflict could therefore be severe.

A second contribution is the first systematic quantitative test of the applicability of theory from criminological police legitimacy literature on a case of civil war. Several single-case studies have gathered evidence on the possible negative effects of shifts from low to high policing in such contexts, but few, if any, have tracked these effects quantitatively. The importance of procuring more fine-grained evidence on how perceptions of police are affected by conflict relates particularly to the topic of state building: how can the international community help build police forces that are effective, just, and enjoy citizens' trust while violence is still ongoing? Understanding how and why conflict affects perceptions of the police is a first step toward sustainable solutions.

While we focus on one specific case, Afghanistan, we believe that our findings should be informative for a broader population of cases. Afghanistan represents a class in which a state-building exercise is ongoing in parallel to a high-intensity conflict. As such we believe the findings can shed light on other cases that belong to this class, such as Iraq, Mali or the DRC. Countries that experience both armed conflict and state-building are often characterized by weak state institutions. A relevant question is therefore whether we would expect similar findings when studying cases that experience armed conflict, but have more capable and stronger state institutions. While we cannot

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

answer this question with certainty, some existing work indicates that civil wars carry the potential to disrupt perceptions of the police even in countries with relatively strong states. Northern Ireland is a prime example of such a case, with qualitative evidence indicating that the outbreak of armed conflict led to more militarized and less accountable policing, which seems to had implications on public perceptions of the police in conflict-affected areas (Brewer and Magee 1991; Byrne and Monaghan 2008; Deglow 2018; Weitzer 1995). We might expect armed conflict to have an even stronger effect on public perceptions in contexts where the state is more capable, and individuals therefore might have more elaborate expectations towards it.

In addition to assessing the generalizabilty of our findings, we hope that our study will trigger research providing in-depth empirical insights into the causal mechanisms underlying the relationship between conflict and public attitudes towards the police. While we attempted to increase confidence in the suggested causal mechanism through a range of empirical tests and case study evidence, an explicit analysis of the processes linking conflict intensity to perceptions of the police is needed to empirically understand why perceptions of the police seem to suffer as a consequence of armed conflict. Given the central role that the police play in representing the state, this would be important to enhance our capacities to build new and capable states in the aftermath of civil war.

Our finding that conflict can reduce perceptions of policing, and our argument that this might be due to a change in policing conduct, speaks also to arguments and tentative evidence from work on the militarization of policing in non-civil war contexts: that it can have several adverse effects for exposed communities (e.g. Delehanty et al. 2017; Gunderson et al. 2019; Lawson 2018, 2019; Mummolo 2018). Beyond research on policing, attitudes, and state-building in contexts of conflict, our findings speak more broadly to an emerging research agenda in political science that places policing at the core of our understanding of citizen-state relations and, by extension, of the quality of governance and democracy (cf. Gunderson et al. 2019; Soss and Weaver 2017).

Acknowledgements: We would like to thank our anonymous reviewers and the editor for their feedback, as well as Kristine Höglund, Lisa Hultman, Hanne Fjelde, Kristine Eck, Espen Geelmuyden Rød, Chiara Ruffa, Alexander de Juan, and Shane MacGiollabhuí for valuable comments.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

References

Altonji, Joseph G., Todd E. Elder, and Christopher R. Taber. 2005. "Selection on Observed and Unobserved Variables: Assessing the Effectiveness of Catholic Schools." *Journal of Political Economy* 113 (1): 151–184.

Ansorg, Nadine, Felix Haass, and Julia Strasheim. 2016. "Police Reforms in Peace Agreements, 1975–2011: Introducing the PRPA Dataset." *Journal of Peace Research* 53 (4): 597–607.

Bakke, Kristin M., John O'Loughlin, Gerard Toal, and Michael D. Ward. 2014. "Convincing State-builders? Disaggregating Internal Legitimacy in Abkhazia." *International Studies Quarterly* 58 (3): 591–607.

Bayley, David H., and Rober M. Perito. 2010. *The Police in War: Fighting Insurgency, Terrorism and Crime*. London: Lynne Rienner Publishers.

Bayley, David H., and David Weisburd. 2009. "Cops and Spooks: The Role of the Police in Counterterrorism." In *To Protect and to Serve. Policing in an Age of Terrorism*, ed. by David Weisburd, Thomas E. Feucht, Idit Hakimi, Lois Felson Mock, and Simon Perry, 81–100. New York: Springer.

Bearden, Milton. 2001. "Afghanistan, Graveyard of Empires." *Foreign Affairs* 80 (6): 17–30.

Blair, Robert A., and Pablo Kalmanovitz. 2016. "On the Rights of Warlords: Legitimate Authority and Basic Protection in War-Torn Societies." *American Political Science Review* 110 (03): 428–440.

Blair, Robert A., Sabrina M. Karim, and Benjamin S. Morse. 2019. "Establishing the Rule of Law in Weak and War-torn States: Evidence From a Field Experiment with the Liberian National Police." *American Political Science Review* 113 (3): 641–657.

Brehm, John O., and Scott Gates. 1999. *Working, Shirking, and Aabotage: Bureaucratic Response to a Democratic Public*. Ann Arbor: University of Michigan Press.

Brewer, John D., and Kathleen Magee. 1991. *Inside the RUC*. Oxford: Clarendon.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Brodeur, Jean Paul. 1983. "High and Low Policing: Remarks About the Policing of Political Activities." *Social Problems* 30 (5): 507–520.

Byrne, Jonny, and Lisa Monaghan. 2008. *Policing Loyalist and Republican Communities: Understanding Key Issues for Local Communities and the PSNI*. Belfast: ICR.

Böhnke, Jan R., Jan Koehler, and Christoph M. Zürcher. 2017. "State Formation as it Happens: Insights From a Repeated Cross-Sectional Study in Afghanistan, 2007–2015." *Conflict, Security & Development* 17 (2): 91–116.

Call, Charles T. 2002. "Competing Donor Approaches to Post-Conflict Police Reform." *Conflict, Security & Development* 2 (01): 99–120.

Clark, Tom S., and Drew A. Linzer. 2015. "Should I Use Fixed or Random Effects?" *Political Science Research and Methods* 3 (02): 399–408.

Collier, Paul, Lani Elliot, Håvard Hegre, Anke Hoeffler, Marta Reynal-Querol, and Nicholas Sambanis. 2003. *Breaking the Conflict Trap: Civil War and Development Policy*. Washington DC: World Bank Publications / Oxford University Press.

Condra, Luke N., James D. Long, Andrew C. Shaver, and Austin L. Wright. 2018. "The Logic of Insurgent Electoral Violence." *American Economic Review* 108 (11): 3199–3231.

Condra, Luke N., Michael Callen, Radha K. Iyengar, James D. Long, and Jacob N. Shapiro. 2019. "Damaging Democracy? Security Provision and Turnout in Afghan Elections." *Economics & Politics* 31 (2): 163–193.

Cordesman, Anthony H., Adam Mausner, and David Kasten. 2009. *Winning in Afghanistan. Creating Effective Afghan Security Forces.* Washington, DC: Center for Strategic & International Studies.

De Juan, Alexander, and Jan H Pierskalla. 2016. "Civil War Violence and Political Trust: Micro-Level Evidence From Nepal." *Conflict Management and Peace Science* 33 (1): 67–88.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Deglow, Annekatrin. 2016. "Localized Legacies of Civil War: Postwar Violent Crime in Northern Ireland." *Journal of Peace Research* 53 (6): 786–799.

Deglow, Annekatrin. 2018. *Forces of Destruction and Construction. Local Conflict Dynamics, Institutional Trust and Postwar Crime*. PhD Diss., Uppsala University.

Delehanty, Casey, Jack Mewhirter, Ryan Welch, and Jason Wilks. 2017. "Militarization and Police Violence: The Case of the 1033 program." *Research & politics* 4 (2): 1–7.

Drake, C.J.M. 1998. *Terrorist's Target Selection*. London: Palgrave MacMillan.

Eck, Kristine. 2012. "In Data We Trust? A Comparison of UCDP GED and ACLED Conflict Events Datasets." *Cooperation and Conflict* 47 (1): 124–141.

Eck, Kristine. 2018. "The Origins of Policing Institutions: Legacies of Colonial Insurgency." *Journal of Peace Research* 55 (2): 147–160.

Epstein, David G. 1968. "The Police Role in Counterinsurgency Efforts." *The Journal of Criminal Law, Criminology, and Police Science* 59 (1): 148–151.

Fair, Christine, and Sumit Ganguly. 2014. *Policing Insurgencies: Cops as Counterinsurgents*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Gates, Scott, and Mogens K. Justesen. 2016. "Political Trust, Shocks, and Accountability: Quasi-Experimental Evidence From a Rebel Attack." Unpublished manuscript.

Gehring, Kai, Sarah Langlotz, and Stefan Kienberger. 2018. "Stimulant or Depressant? Resource-related Income Shocks and Conflict". Household in Conflict (HiCN) Working Paper No. 286.

Gelman, Andrew, and Jennifer Hill. 2006. *Data Analysis Using Regression and Multilevel/Hierarchical Models.* New York: Cambridge University Press.

Giustozzi, Antonio, and Mohammad Isaqzadeh. 2013. *Policing Afghanistan. The Politics of the Lame Leviathan*. London: Hurst & Company.

Goldsmith, Andrew. 2005. "Police Reform and the Problem of Trust." *Theoretical Criminology* 9 (4): 443–470.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Grosjean, Pauline. 2014. "Conflict and Social and Political Preferences: Evidence from World War II and Civil Conflict in 35 European Countries." *Comparative Economic Studies* 56 (3): 424–451.

Gunderson, Anna, Elisha Cohen, Kaylyn Jackson, Tom S. Clark, Adam Glynn, and Michael Leo Owens. 2019. "Does Military Aid to Police Decrease Crime? Counterevidence from the Federal 1033 Program and Local Police Jurisdictions in the United States." Unpublished Manuscript.

Hasisi, Badi, Geoffrey P. Alpert, and Dan Flynn. 2009. "The Impacts of Policing Terrorism on Society: Lessons from Israel and the US." In *To Protect and to Serve. Policing in an Age of Terrorism*, ed. by David Weisburd, Thomas E. Feucht, Idit Hakimi, Lois Felson Mock, and Simon Perry, 177–202. New York: Springer.

Henrich, Joseph, Michal Bauer, Alessandra Cassar, Julie Chytilová, and Benjamin Grant Purzycki. 2019. "War Increases Religiosity." *Nature Human Behaviour* 3 (2): 129–135.

Hills, Alice. 2012. "Insurgency, Counterinsurgency, and Policing." In *The Routledge Handbook of Insurgency and Counterinsurgency*, ed. by Paul B. Rich and Isabelle Duyvesteyn, 108–118. New York: Routledge.

Hong, Ji Yeon, and Woo Chang Kang. 2017. "Trauma and Stigma: The Long-Term Effects of Wartime Violence on Political Attitudes." *Conflict Management and Peace Science* 34 (3).

Hultman, Lisa. 2012. "COIN and Civilian Collaterals: Patterns of Violence in Afghanistan, 2004–2009." *Small Wars & Insurgencies* 23 (2): 245–263.

Hutchison, Marc L., and Kristin Johnson. 2011. "Capacity to Trust? Institutional Capacity, Conflict, and Political Trust in Africa, 2000–2005." *Journal of Peace Research* 48 (6): 737–752.

Jackson, Paul. 2003. "Warlords as Alternative Forms of Governance." *Small Wars & Insurgencies* 14 (2): 131–150.

Jonathan-Zamir, Tal, David Weisburd, and Badi Hasisi. 2014. *Policing Terrorism, Crime Control and Police-Community Relations. Learning from the Israeli Experience*. New York: Springer.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Jones, Seth G. 2008. "The Rise of Afghanistan's Insurgency: State Failure and Jihad." *International Security* 32 (4): 7–40.

Karakus, Onder. 2017. "Instrumental and Normative Pathways to Legitimacy and Public Cooperation with the Police in Turkey: Considering Perceived Neighborhood Characteristics and Local Government Performance." *Justice Quarterly* 34 (1): 25–54.

Kelly, Terrence K., Nora Bensahel, and Olga Oliker. 2011. *Security Force Assistance in Afghanistan: Identifying Lessons for Future Efforts*. Santa Monica: RAND Corporation.

Ladwig III, Walter C. 2007. "Training Foreign Police: A Missing Aspect of U.S. Security Assistance to Counterinsurgency." *Comparative Strategy* 26 (4): 285–293.

Lake, David. 2010. "Building Legitmate States After Civil War." In *Strengthening Peace in Post-Civil War States*, ed. by Matthew Hoddie and Caroline A. Hartzell, 29–51. Chicago: The University of Chicago Press.

Lawson, Edward. 2018. *Causes and consequences of police militarization*. PhD Diss., University of South Carolina.

Lawson, Edward. 2019. "TRENDS: Police Militarization and the Use of Lethal Force." *Political Research Quarterly* 72 (1): 177–189.

Lerman, Amy E., and Vesla M. Weaver. 2014a. *Arresting Citizenship: The democratic Consequences of American Crime Control*. Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

Lerman, Amy E., and Vesla M. Weaver. 2014b. "Staying out of Sight? Concentrated Policing and Local Political Action." *The Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 651 (1): 202–219.

Lind, Jo Thori, Karl Ove Moene, and Fredrik Willumsen. 2014. "Opium for the Masses? Conflict-Induced Narcotics Production in Afghanistan." *Review of Economics and Statistics* 96 (5): 949–966.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Lipsky, Michael. 1980. *Street-Level Bureaucracy: Dilemmas of the Individual in Public Service*. New York: Russell Sage Foundation.

Long, Austin. 2014. "The Police in Afghanistan, 2002-2011." In *Policing Insurgencies. Cops as Counterinsurgents*, ed. by C. Christine Fair and Sumit Ganguly, 203–226. New Delhi: Oxford University Press.

Lyall, Jason, Graeme Blair, and Kosuke Imai. 2013. "Explaining Support for Combatants During Wartime: A Survey Experiment in Afghanistan." *American Political Science Review* 107 (04): 679–705.

Lyall, Jason, and Isaiah Wilson. 2009. "Rage Against the Machines: Explaining Outcomes in Counterinsurgency Wars." *International Organization* 63 (1): 67–106.

Malejacq, Romain. 2016. "Warlords, Intervention, and State Consolidation: A Typology of Political Orders in Weak and Failed States." *Security Studies* 25 (1): 85–110.

Maloney, Sean M. 2008. "A Violent Impediment: The Evolution of Insurgent Operations in Kandahar Province 2003–07." *Small Wars & Insurgencies* 19 (2): 201–220.

Mani, Rama. 1999. "Contextualizing Police Reform: Security, the Rule of Law and Post-Conflict Peacebuilding." *International Peacekeeping* 6 (4): 9–26.

Marks, Thomas. 2003. *Insurgency in Nepal*. Strategic Studies Institute, US Army War College.

Matanock, Aila M., and Miguel García-Sánchez. 2018. "Does Counterinsurgent Success Match Social Support? Evidence from a Survey Experiment in Colombia." *The Journal of Politics* 80 (3): 800–814.

Mukhopadhyay, Dipali. 2014. *Warlords, Strongman Governors, and the State in Afghanistan*. Cambridge University Press.

Mummolo, Jonathan. 2018. "Militarization Fails to Enhance Police Safety or Reduce Crime but May Harm Police Reputation." *Proceedings of the national academy of sciences* 115 (37): 9181–9186.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Packer, George. 2008. "Kilcullen on Afghanistan: 'It's Still Winnable, But Only Just'." *The New Yorker*. Accessed Nov. 14, 2008. https://www.newyorker.com/news/george-packer/kilcullen-on-afghanistan-its-still-winnable-but-only-just.

Pion-Berlin, David, and Miguel Carreras. 2017. "Armed Forces, Police and Crime-Fighting in Latin America." *Journal of Politics in Latin America* 9 (3): 3–26.

Schutte, Sebastian. 2017. "Violence and Civilian Loyalties: Evidence From Afghanistan." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 61 (8): 1595–1625.

Sedra, Mark. 2017. *Security Sector Reform in Conflict-Affected Countries. The Evolution of a Model*. London: Routledge.

Sherman, Matt, and Josh Paul. 2014. "The Role of Police in Counterinsurgency Operations in Iraq, 2003-2006." In *Policing Insurgencies. Cops as Counterinsurgents.* Ed. by C. Christine Fair and Sumit Ganguly. New Delhi: Oxford University Press.

Skinner, Marcus. 2008. "Counterinsurgency and State Building: An Assessment of the Role of the Afghan National Police." *Democracy and Security* 4 (3): 290–311.

Soss, Joe, and Vesla Weaver. 2017. "Police are our Government: Politics, Political Science, and the Policing of Race–Class Subjugated Communities." *Annual Review of Political Science* 20:565–591.

Sundberg, Ralph, and Erik Melander. 2013. "Introducing the UCDP Georeferenced Event Dataset." *Journal of Peace Research* 50 (4): 523–532.

Sunshine, Jason, and Tom R. Tyler. 2003. "The Role of Procedural Justice and Legitimacy in Shaping Public Support for Policing." *Law & Society Review* 37 (3): 513–548.

Tankebe, Justice. 2008. "Police Effectiveness and Police Trustworthiness in Ghana: An empirical appraisal." *Criminology and Criminal Justice* 11:8–19.

Tankebe, Justice. 2009. "Public Cooperation With the Police in Ghana: Does Procedural Fairness Matter?" *Criminology* 47 (4): 1265–1293.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Tilly, Charles. 1990. *Coercion, Capital, and European States: AD 990–1990*. Cambridge: Basil Blackwell.

Topping, John, and Jonny Byrne. 2012. "Paramilitary Punishments in Belfast: Policing Beneath the Peace." *Behavioral Sciences of Terrorism and Political Aggression* 4 (1): 41–59.

Tyler, Tom R. 2003. "Procedural Justice, Legitimacy, and the Effective Rule of Law." *Crime and justice* 30:283–357.

Tyler, Tom R. 2004. "Enhancing Police Legitimacy." *Annals of the American Academy of Political and Social Science* 593 (1): 84–99.

Tyler, Tom R., and Yuen J. Huo. 2002. *Trust in the Law: Encouraging Public Cooperation with the Police and Courts*. New York: Russel Sage Foundation.

UNODC. 2013. "Afghanistan Opium Survey 2013." United Nations Office on Drugs and Crimes.

Voors, Marten J., and Erwin H Bulte. 2014. "Conflict and the Evolution of Institutions: Unbundling Institutions at the Local Level in Burundi." *Journal of Peace Research* 51 (4): 455–469.

Weaver, Vesla M., and Amy E. Lerman. 2010. "Political Consequences of the Carceral State." *American Political Science Review* 104 (4): 817–833.

Weber, Max. 1958. "Politics as a Vocation." In *From Max Weber: Essays in Sociology*, ed. by Hans H. Gerth and Charles W. Mills, 77–129. New York: Oxford University Press.

Weidman, Nils B. 2015. "On the Accuracy of Media-Based Conflict Event Data." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 59 (6): 1129–1149.

Weitzer, Ronald. 1995. *Policing Under Fire: Ethnic Conflict and Police–Community Relations in Northern Ireland.* Albany: State University of New York Press.

Wig, Tore, and Andreas F. Tollefsen. 2015. "The institutional legacies of local conflict violence: Perception-based evidence from the Afrobarometer Surveys." In Wig, Tore, *Beyond the civil democratic peace: Subnational political institutions and internal armed conflict*, 163–190. PhD Diss., University of Olso.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Annekatrin Deglow is Assistant Professor at the Department of Peace and Conflict Research, Uppsala University, Sweden.

Ralph Sundberg is Assistant Professor at the Department of Peace and Conflict Research, Uppsala University, Sweden.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Online Appendix: Local Conflict Intensity and Public Perceptions of the Police: Evidence from Afghanistan*

Annekatrin Deglow & Ralph Sundberg

Department of Peace and Conflict Research

Uppsala University

Contents

1 Spatial Distribution of Conflict Intensity **3**

2 Survey Items **3**

3 Matching of Individuals (SoAP) to Districts (UCDP GED) **4**

4 Constructing the Independent Variable **5**

5 Descriptive Statistics **7**

6 Equation for Main Models **8**

7 Factor Analysis **8**

8 Regressing Trust on Perceptions of Effectiveness and Procedural Justice **10**

*Contact: annekatrin.deglow@pcr.uu.se

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

9 Regression Results for Categorical Control Variables **11**

10 Robustness Tests **11**

10.1 Analysis on Female Subsample 12

10.2 Independent Variable: All Forms of Organized Violence 14

10.3 Independent Variable: Excluding One-Sided Violence by Non-State Actors 16

10.4 Independent Variable: Log-Transformed 18

10.5 Independent Variable: Changing Temporal Vicinity 20

10.6 Ordered Multilevel Logistic Regression 22

10.7 Fixed Effects Logistic Regression 24

11 Accounting for Omitted Variable Bias **26**

12 Testing Preference Falsification **28**

13 Tests for Alternative Explanations **29**

13.1 Government and ISAF Perceptions 29

13.2 Civilian Loyalties 33

13.3 Crime and Conflict Intensity 35

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

1 Spatial Distribution of Conflict Intensity

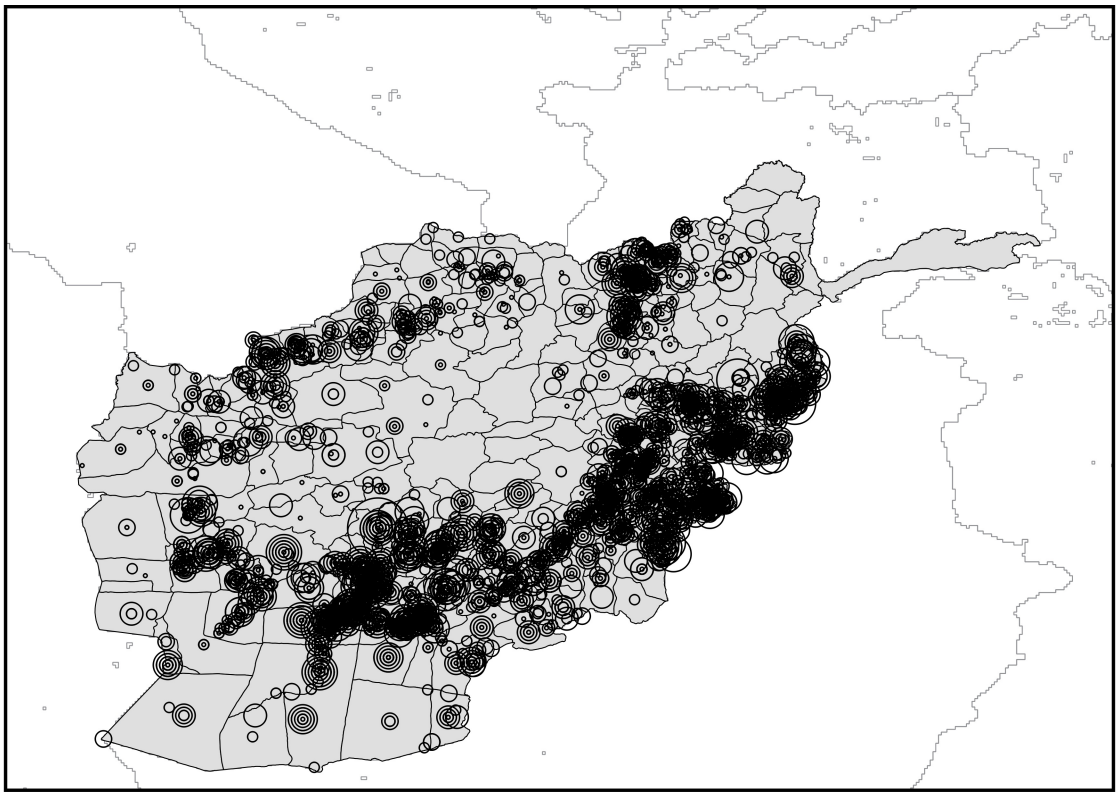

Figure A1: Spatial distribution of organized violence in Afghanistan, 2007-2012 (UCDP GED). Circles indicate the location of events of organized violence. The larger the size of the circle, the higher the number of fatalities in the plotted event. Boundaries indicate districts.

2 Survey Items

Table A1 summarizes the three survey items used as our dependent variables. Note that the categories are dichotomized for use in all logistic regression models (1,2=0; 3,4=1), while the scale displayed in the table is used for the ordinal logistic regression models. The scale of the survey item for trust in the police is reverse-coded.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A1 Survey items used as dependent variables.

Variable	Survey item	Scale
Police effectiveness	The ANP is efficient at arresting those who have committed crimes so that they can be brought to justice?	1=Strongly disagree, 2=Disagree somewhat, 3=Agree somewhat, 4=Strongly agree
Police procedural justice	The ANP is honest and fair with the Afghan people	1=Strongly disagree, 2=Disagree somewhat, 3=Agree somewhat, 4=Strongly agree
Trust in the police	I would like to ask you about some officials, institutions and organizations in our country. I will read these out to you. As I read out each, please tell me how much trust you have in each of the institutions and organizations and officials to perform their jobs. Do you have a great deal of trust, a fair amount of trust, not very much trust, or no trust at all in... Afghan National Police	1=No trust at all, 2=Not very much trust, 3=A fair amount of trust, 4=A great deal of trust (reverse coded)

3 Matching of Individuals (SoAP) to Districts (UCDP GED)

In the main manuscript, we describe that we construct our independent variable as a measurement of individual-level exposure to conflict intensity at the district level by matching the district in which the individual respondent was sampled with the UCDP GED's event locations. The SoAP samples Kabul's subdistricts separately, and so we combine them into one district for Kabul City. For the survey waves included in our analysis (2008–2012) the SoAP further includes—as in other data sources on Afghanistan—individuals from temporary/unofficial districts that are split from their parent districts. We merge individuals from these temporary districts back on to the parent districts to avoid dropping them unnecessarily when merging SoAP data with UCDP data, as well as with other data sources for control variables. These districts are Dularam (parent district is Kish Rod), Chinarto (Choran), Dand (Kandahar) and Taktha Pul (Daman). In the case of one temporary district (Gayti), we cannot identify the parent district and omit it from our analysis. Note that our population size data accounts for the merging of the temporary/unofficial districts by adding

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

the population size from the temporary districts to the population size of their parent districts. This is possible as the Afghan Central Statistics Organization data provides separate estimates for temporary districts.

4 Constructing the Independent Variable

In the manuscript we specify that our main independent variable is a measurement of conflict intensity created through merging specific types of events and fatalities from the UCDP GED. Our main independent variable is constructed through merging those classes of events that we deem the most likely to trigger counterinsurgency policing. These include (1) violent interactions between the government (and/or international forces) and non-state actors, and (2) violence against civilians perpetrated by non-state actors. These are the two types of events that most clearly signal the presence and strength of challenges to the incumbent government and its legitimacy. Not included in this variable are violent interactions between non-state actors (such as, for instance, combat between warlords); commonly referred to as 'non-state conflict' in UCDP terminology.

Our main independent variable is a count variable that sums the number of fatalities produced in the two classes of events described above. We exclude all fatalities coded as being civilian and 'unknown' if these occurred in government-insurgent combat. The 'unknown' category signifies that UCDP coders were unable to identify whether fatalities in a battle were on the government side, insurgent side, or civilian. We exclude these two categories of fatalities as it could be that collateral deaths lead to public resentment of the police, which could reduce perceptions of the police and therefore bias our results. Using these selection and restriction criteria for measuring conflict intensity therefore provides the cleanest and most valid measurement of our independent variable.

For robustness purposes we also run all of our main models using a second iteration of the independent variable. This iteration contained all classes of organized violence (government versus insurgents, non-state conflict, and one-sided violence) and with no restrictions on fatality inclusion (see Table A7).

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Other data sources for our independent variable were evaluated but discarded due to validity and accuracy. The Armed Conflict Location and Event Dataset (ACLED) (Raleigh et al. 2010) is often used in disaggregated analyses of conflict. We opted not to use these data, as they are generally less reliable than the UCDP GED in assessing subnational variation (Eck 2012). A second alternative specifically for the Afghan war are the Significant Activities (SIGACTS) data. SIGACTS documents violence based on military reports and is often argued to be more comprehensive and precise than UCDP data on Afghanistan. The SIGACTS data has, however, at least one prominent drawback for our purposes: significant and systematic underreporting of violence initiated by US and coalition troops (Schutte 2017; Weidmann 2016). As we theoretically view conflict intensity as the aggregate of different types of violent processes—and not composed solely of insurgent-initiated acts—this presents a significant validity problem for our purposes.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

5 Descriptive Statistics

Table A2 Descriptive statistics.

Variable	Mean	Std. Dev.	Min.	Max.	%	N
Police effect. (binary)	0.734	0.442	0	1	–	31720
Police proc. justice (binary)	0.838	0.369	0	1	–	31720
Trust in the police (binary)	0.818	0.386	0	1	–	31720
Conflict intensity	24.103	40.598	0	314	–	31720
Conflict intensity$_{t-12}$	23.712	44.953	0	473	–	31720
Age	34.905	13.08	18	85	–	31720
Gender (Female)	0.569	0.495	0	1	–	31720
Ethnicity$_{individual}$ (other than Pashtun)	0.437	0.496	0	1	–	31720
Rural/urban residency (rural)	0.207	0.405	0	1	–	31720
Radio ownership (no)	0.823	0.382	0	1	–	31720
Education						
Never went to school	–	–	–	–	58	31720
Primary school, incomplete (classes 1 to 5)	–	–	–	–	10	31720
Primary school, complete (finished class 6)	–	–	–	–	6	31720
Secondary education, incomplete (classes 7 to 8)	–	–	–	–	6	31720
Secondary education, complete (finished class 9)	–	–	–	–	4	31720
High school (classes 10 to 12)	–	–	–	–	14	31720
University or above	–	–	–	–	3	31720
Income						
Less than 2,000 afs	–	–	–	–	11	31720
2,001 - 3,000 afs	–	–	–	–	18	31720
3,001 - 5,000 afs	–	–	–	–	22	31720
5,001 - 10,000 afs	–	–	–	–	27	31720
10,000 - 15,000 afs	–	–	–	–	12	31720
15,001 - 20,000 afs	–	–	–	–	6	31720
20,001 - 25,000 afs	–	–	–	–	2	31720
25,001 - 40,000 afs	–	–	–	–	1	31720
More then 40,000 afs	–	–	–	–	1	31720
Police corruption						
In all cases	–	–	–	–	3	31720
Most of the cases/most of the time	–	–	–	–	9	31720
In isolated cases/some of the time	–	–	–	–	18	31720
In no cases	–	–	–	–	70	31720
Opium$_{district}$ (ha)	0.865	1.525	0.01	5.5	–	31720
Ethnicity$_{district}$ (%)	0.437	0.419	0	1	–	31720
Pop. size$_{district}$ (log)	4.812	1.076	0	5.849	–	31720
Survey wave						
2008	–	–	–	–	19	31720
2009	–	–	–	–	18	31720
2010	–	–	–	–	19	31720
2011	–	–	–	–	19	31720
2012	–	–	–	–	24	31720

Note: The reference category for dummy variables is given in parentheses. For categorical variables, categories are given separately and the proportion (rounded up/down to the next integer) of individuals in each category is given.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

6 Equation for Main Models

We use multi-level logistic regression models with random intercepts at the district-level for our main analysis, that is, each district gets its own intercept in addition to an overall average intercept for the full model. The equation shows our benchmark model that we use to estimate our three dependent variables, e.g. M3, M6, and M9 for police effectiveness, procedural justice, and trust respectively. We rely on the notation used by Gelman and Hill (2006, 2).

$Pr(y_i = 1) = \text{logit}^{-}(\alpha_{j[i]} + \beta x_i + \beta_t t + \varepsilon_i)$, for individuals i in =1,...,n.

$\alpha_j = \alpha + bu_j + \eta_j$, for districts j in =1,...,n.

Where is x_i represent a vector of predictors with corresponding coefficients β at the individual level (conflict intensity, gender, age, ethnicity, education, income, radio ownership, rural/urban residency, ANP corruption). u_j represents a vector of district level control variables (opium, ethnicity, population size) with corresponding coefficients b. t is the categorical survey wave indicator with coefficient β_t. ε_i is the error term at the individual level, and η_j the error term at the district level. Since we have binary outcomes, we use the logit link function to estimate the likelihood of our dependent variables taking on the value 1 ($Pr(y_i = 1)$).

7 Factor Analysis

We base the selection of items for our dependent variables on a factor analysis. In the analysis we include all items in the SoAP that specifically ask respondents to evaluate the ANP. The results show that four out of seven items load strongly on the same factor (factor loadings of above 0.69, see Table A3), indicating that they measure a larger underlying concept. These strongly loading items include, in addition to our three dependent variables, also an item asking individuals to evaluate to what extent they agreed with the statement that the ANP *"helps improve security."* The remaining three items load weakly (factor loadings of below 0.43) on a second factor. These included items that ask respondents to evaluate the extent to which the ANP *"is unprofessional*

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

and poorly trained," and whether it *"needs support from the foreign troops and cannot operate by itself."* It further includes an item asking respondents: *"If you were a victim of violence or any criminal act, how much confidence would you have that the governmental law-enforcing organizations and judicial systems would punish the guilty party?"* This last item has a high uniqueness value (0.96), indicating that it measure something different from the factor's other two items. We believe that the second factor predominantly measures the extent to which individuals deem the ANP to be able to operate in relation to international troops, whereas the first factor measures perceptions of police performance in and of itself.

Since the literature on policing commonly focuses on public perceptions of (a) police effectiveness in fighting ordinary crime, (b) perceptions of procedural justice, and (c) perceived legitimacy of/trust in the police, we choose those items loading on the first factor that explicitly ask about these concepts. The fourth item on improvement of security is vague in its wording and could be referring to both ordinary crime and insurgency. This question could therefore be interpreted differently across respondents, leading to lower reliability. As the referent object is vague and since the question lacks a solid theoretical link to the policing literature we lean on, we chose not to include this question as a dependent variable.

Table A3 Factor Analysis

Variable	*Factor 1*	*Factor 2*	*Uniqueness*
Trust*	0.7020	-0.0314	0.5062
Effectiveness*	0.6987	-0.0474	0.5096
Procedural justice*	0.7772	0.0189	0.3956
Help improve security	0.7154	-0.1531	0.4647
Unprofessional/poorly trained	-0.1274	0.3914	0.8306
Needs support of foreign troops	-0.1043	0.4259	0.8077
Punish guilty party	0.1505	0.1242	0.9619

N=12,513; *=items included in analysis

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

8 Regressing Trust on Perceptions of Effectiveness and Procedural Justice

Table A4 shows the results from regression models predicting trust in the police (binary: 0=low trust, 1=trust) as the dependent variable with perceptions of effectiveness in fighting crime (binary) and procedural justice (binary) as main independent variable. Categorical variables with more than two answer categories are included in the model, but omitted from the regression table. Coefficients are reported in log odds.

Table A4 Dependent variable = trust in the police; multi-level logistic regression with random intercepts applied at district-level

	(1)	(2)
Police effectiveness	1.054***	1.014***
	(0.039)	(0.039)
Police procedural justice	1.995***	1.963***
	(0.042)	(0.042)
Conflict intensity		−0.002*
		(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)		−0.002**
		(0.001)
Age		0.003
		(0.001)
Gender		−0.083
		(0.042)
Pashtun		0.002
		(0.069)
Radio ownership		0.032
		(0.053)
Rural/urban residency		0.075
		(0.090)
Opium (hectar district)		−0.028
		(0.017)
Ethnicity (perc. district)		−0.627***
		(0.112)
Population size (logged)		−0.029
		(0.046)
Constant	−0.385***	−0.427
	(0.070)	(0.269)
Observations	31720	31720
AIC	22168.534	21937.169
BIC	22235.451	22229.934

Standard errors in parentheses
* $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

9 Regression Results for Categorical Control Variables

Because of space constraints, we presented the regression results in Table 1 (main text) without categorical control variables that have more than two categories. Table A5 below displays the coefficient estimates for those omitted variables in log-odds. All other continuous or dichotomous controls, as well as other statistics are omitted here for ease of presentation. The reference categories for the categorical variables are: survey wave = 2008; education = "never went to school"; income = "less than 2,000 afs"; ANP corruption = "in all cases".

Table A5 Regression results for categorical control variables (Table 1). Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level

	Effectiveness			Proc. justice			Trust		
	M1	M2	M3	M4	M5	M6	M7	M8	M9
Survey wave 2009	-0.101^{*}	-0.076	-0.073	0.220^{***}	0.274^{***}	0.277^{***}	0.289^{***}	0.342^{***}	0.335^{***}
	(0.045)	(0.046)	(0.046)	(0.053)	(0.054)	(0.054)	(0.055)	(0.056)	(0.056)
Survey wave 2010	-0.191^{***}	-0.127^{**}	-0.122^{**}	0.257^{***}	0.371^{***}	0.377^{***}	-0.194^{***}	-0.111^{*}	-0.108^{*}
	(0.045)	(0.045)	(0.045)	(0.053)	(0.054)	(0.054)	(0.052)	(0.053)	(0.053)
Survey wave 2011	0.067	0.156^{***}	0.159^{***}	0.331^{***}	0.470^{***}	0.476^{***}	0.048	0.163^{**}	0.159^{**}
	(0.046)	(0.047)	(0.047)	(0.054)	(0.055)	(0.056)	(0.053)	(0.055)	(0.055)
Survey wave 2012	0.136^{**}	0.196^{***}	0.199^{***}	0.480^{***}	0.577^{***}	0.582^{***}	0.102^{*}	0.175^{***}	0.175^{***}
	(0.044)	(0.045)	(0.045)	(0.053)	(0.054)	(0.054)	(0.051)	(0.053)	(0.053)
Primary school, incomplete (classes 1 to 5)		0.090	0.090		0.097	0.098		0.147^{**}	0.148^{**}
		(0.047)	(0.047)		(0.057)	(0.057)		(0.056)	(0.056)
Primary school, complete (finished class 6)		0.190^{**}	0.191^{**}		0.173^{*}	0.175^{*}		0.123	0.124
		(0.059)	(0.059)		(0.070)	(0.070)		(0.068)	(0.068)
Secondary education, incomplete (classes 7 to 8)		0.034	0.033		0.006	0.006		0.038	0.038
		(0.060)	(0.060)		(0.071)	(0.071)		(0.070)	(0.070)
Secondary education, complete (finished class 9)		0.010	0.010		0.086	0.087		0.005	0.004
		(0.072)	(0.072)		(0.086)	(0.086)		(0.084)	(0.084)
High school (classes 10 to 12)		0.088	0.086		0.124^{*}	0.123^{*}		0.058	0.055
		(0.046)	(0.046)		(0.055)	(0.055)		(0.054)	(0.054)
University education or above		0.053	0.050		-0.060	-0.063		0.024	0.021
		(0.081)	(0.081)		(0.094)	(0.094)		(0.096)	(0.096)
2,001 - 3,000 afs		-0.233^{***}	-0.230^{***}		-0.240^{**}	-0.235^{**}		-0.064	-0.056
		(0.057)	(0.057)		(0.073)	(0.073)		(0.070)	(0.070)
3,001 - 5,000 afs		-0.188^{***}	-0.183^{**}		-0.254^{***}	-0.246^{***}		-0.134^{*}	-0.124
		(0.057)	(0.057)		(0.072)	(0.072)		(0.068)	(0.068)
5,001 - 10,000 afs		-0.248^{***}	-0.242^{***}		-0.270^{***}	-0.261^{***}		-0.087	-0.075
		(0.057)	(0.057)		(0.072)	(0.072)		(0.068)	(0.068)
10,000 - 15,000 afs		-0.222^{***}	-0.214^{***}		-0.263^{**}	-0.250^{**}		-0.050	-0.032
		(0.065)	(0.065)		(0.081)	(0.081)		(0.077)	(0.077)
15,001 - 20,000 afs		-0.081	-0.071		-0.259^{**}	-0.243^{**}		0.083	0.102
		(0.076)	(0.076)		(0.092)	(0.091)		(0.089)	(0.089)
20,001 - 25,000 afs		0.146	0.156		-0.136	-0.120		0.193	0.211
		(0.111)	(0.111)		(0.130)	(0.130)		(0.128)	(0.128)
25,001 - 40,000 afs		-0.113	-0.105		-0.282	-0.269		-0.112	-0.098
		(0.143)	(0.144)		(0.167)	(0.167)		(0.161)	(0.161)
More then 40,000 afs		-0.386^{*}	-0.382^{*}		-0.648^{**}	-0.642^{**}		0.197	0.192
		(0.176)	(0.177)		(0.204)	(0.204)		(0.226)	(0.226)
Most of the cases/most of the time		0.054	0.055		0.291^{**}	0.292^{**}		0.099	0.099
		(0.082)	(0.082)		(0.092)	(0.092)		(0.089)	(0.089)
In isolated cases/some of the time		0.166^{*}	0.162^{*}		0.352^{***}	0.347^{***}		0.327^{***}	0.321^{***}
		(0.077)	(0.077)		(0.086)	(0.086)		(0.084)	(0.084)
In no cases		0.526^{***}	0.523^{***}		0.786^{***}	0.782^{***}		0.828^{***}	0.824^{***}
		(0.074)	(0.074)		(0.082)	(0.082)		(0.081)	(0.081)

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$; Coefficients reported as log-odds.

10 Robustness Tests

To show that our results do not hinge on the particularities of model specifications and variable measurement, we conduct a number of robustness tests. Note that the regression tables that follow

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

will all omit categorical variables with more than two categories to ease accessibility (i.e. education, income, police corruption, and survey wave; see replication code for full models). All coefficients are reported in log-odds. Gender, ethnicity, radio ownership and rural/urban residence are dummy variables with the following reference categories: Gender=female, ethnicity=other than Pashtun, radio ownership=no, urban/rural residency=rural.

10.1 Analysis on Female Subsample

As was mentioned in the main text, interviews in the SoAP are gender-matched to meet cultural requirements. Because of the security situation, female enumerators at times cannot visit certain areas, resulting in either the replacement of sampling points by other, more safe ones, or male-only samples for certain settlements, districts or provinces. This could bias the results if women perceive differently both of conflict and of the police. While we cannot account for women that were not interviewed in the first place, we test whether our findings hold when conducting the analysis on a subsample of female respondents. Note that due to the exclusion of male respondents, the sample size drops from 360 districts with 31,720 individuals to 320 districts with 13,675 individuals. That is, 40 districts in our original sample have male respondents only. As Table A6 shows, the results remain robust. Conflict intensity has a negative and statistically significant effect on all three dependent variables, indicating that the more a female respondent has been exposed to conflict intensity in the district she is living in, the less likely she is to perceive the police as being effective, just, and trustworthy. Since the relationship in the female sample does not differ from the relationship in the full sample, the fact that female respondents are missing for some areas should be seen as less problematic. Note also that the results remain robust (negative and statistically significant coefficient) when using a subsample of males.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A6 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level for subsample of female respondents

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	-0.008^{***}	-0.006^{***}	-0.005^{***}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.001	-0.002^{*}	-0.005^{***}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Age	0.002	0.001	-0.000
	(0.002)	(0.003)	(0.002)
Ethnicity (individual)	0.060	0.001	0.168
	(0.084)	(0.112)	(0.106)
Radio ownership	-0.045	0.067	0.032
	(0.058)	(0.075)	(0.072)
Rural/urban residency	0.461^{***}	0.446^{**}	0.236
	(0.112)	(0.149)	(0.130)
Opium (hectar district)	0.025	0.030	-0.035
	(0.022)	(0.028)	(0.026)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.119	-0.182	-0.644^{***}
	(0.143)	(0.179)	(0.175)
Population size (logged)	0.038	0.071	-0.009
	(0.055)	(0.066)	(0.070)
Constant	1.212^{***}	1.535^{***}	2.202^{***}
	(0.339)	(0.420)	(0.432)
Observations	13675	13675	13675
No. of districts	320	320	320
AIC	13423.151	8907.808	9662.361
BIC	13663.897	9148.554	9903.108

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

10.2 Independent Variable: All Forms of Organized Violence

Since it might be that any type of organized violence in a civil war context triggers more militarized policing, we replicate all main models from Table 1 in the main analysis (Model 3 for police effectiveness, 6 for police procedural justice, and 9 for trust in police) with an independent variable that includes all forms of organized violence reported in the UCDP GED. This includes in addition to one-sided violence by non-state actors also one-sided violence by the Government, collateral civilian fatalities stemming from battle-related deaths, fatality events from non-state conflict (non-state actors fighting each other), and unknown deaths (i.e. those that cannot be attributed to either of the actors in a conflict dyad). Note that the control variable capturing conflict intensity$_{t-12}$ is constructed in the same way. Table A7 shows that the results are robust. The effect of conflict intensity on all three dependent variables is negative and reaches conventional statistical significance levels.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A7 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level; conflict intensity includes all types of organized violence.

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	-0.004^{***}	-0.003^{***}	-0.003^{***}
	(0.000)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.001^{*}	-0.001	-0.001^{**}
	(0.000)	(0.000)	(0.000)
Age	0.002^{*}	0.002	0.003^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender	-0.292^{***}	-0.497^{***}	-0.297^{***}
	(0.032)	(0.040)	(0.038)
Pashtun	-0.007	-0.095	-0.042
	(0.052)	(0.064)	(0.062)
Radio ownership	0.055	0.187^{***}	0.120^{*}
	(0.040)	(0.049)	(0.048)
Rural/urban residency	0.109	0.105	0.131
	(0.071)	(0.088)	(0.084)
Opium (hectar district)	0.007	0.010	-0.013
	(0.014)	(0.017)	(0.016)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.319^{***}	-0.519^{***}	-0.703^{***}
	(0.095)	(0.118)	(0.114)
Population size (logged)	0.049	0.089	0.022
	(0.044)	(0.055)	(0.057)
Constant	0.808^{**}	1.020^{***}	1.294^{***}
	(0.246)	(0.303)	(0.310)
Observations (individuals)	31720	31720	31720
No. of districts	360	360	360
AIC	34083.822	25351.882	26469.087
BIC	34359.857	25627.917	26745.122

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

10.3 Independent Variable: Excluding One-Sided Violence by Non-State Actors

An alternative explanation for why we might observe that conflict intensity reduces individual-level perceptions of the police is that conflict intensity might be a proxy for non-state actor civilian abuse. That is, it could be that a failure to protect civilians from non-state actor attacks signals that the police cannot provide law and order, and consequently undermines perceptions of the police. We therefore replicate all main models from Table 1 in the main text (M3, M6, and M9) with an alternative independent variable that excludes all fatalities stemming from non-state actor one-sided violence, and include non-state one-sided violence as a control variable instead. If the alternative explanation holds true, we would not expect to observe an effect of this variable on perceptions of the police. As can be seen in Table A8, however, the effect remains negative and reaches conventional statistical significance levels. This means that civilian abuse by non-state actors cannot drive the results that are reported in the main text in Table 1.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A8 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level; conflict intensity excludes non-state actor one-sided violence.

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	-0.005^{***}	-0.004^{***}	-0.004^{***}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.001^{**}	-0.001	-0.002^{***}
	(0.000)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Non-state one-sided violence	-0.005	-0.017^{***}	0.001
	(0.003)	(0.003)	(0.003)
Age	0.002^{*}	0.002	0.003^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender	-0.293^{***}	-0.499^{***}	-0.299^{***}
	(0.032)	(0.040)	(0.038)
Pashtun	-0.007	-0.094	-0.042
	(0.052)	(0.064)	(0.062)
Radio ownership	0.052	0.187^{***}	0.116^{*}
	(0.040)	(0.049)	(0.048)
Rural/urban residency	0.106	0.090	0.132
	(0.071)	(0.088)	(0.084)
Opium (hectar district)	0.007	0.016	-0.016
	(0.014)	(0.017)	(0.016)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.312^{***}	-0.521^{***}	-0.689^{***}
	(0.094)	(0.118)	(0.114)
Population size (logged)	0.050	0.090	0.022
	(0.044)	(0.055)	(0.056)
Constant	0.808^{**}	1.006^{***}	1.309^{***}
	(0.246)	(0.302)	(0.310)
Observations (individuals)	31720	31720	31720
No. of districts	360	360	360
AIC	34056.397	25325.290	26443.464
BIC	34340.797	25609.690	26727.864

Standard errors in parentheses; $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

10.4 Independent Variable: Log-Transformed

Next, we replicate all main models from Table 1 in the main analysis (Model 3 for police effectiveness, 6 for police procedural justice, and 9 for trust in police) with a log-transformed independent variable, i.e. conflict intensity. Log-transforming conflict intensity accounts for the possibility that increases at higher levels of violence might matter less than increases at lower levels. Since for some of our observations conflict intensity takes on the value zero, and the log of zero is undefined, we add a constant of 1 to all observations in order to be able to log-transform the variable. For sake of consistency, we also log-transform the control variable for previous conflict intensity (conflict intensity$_{t-12}$). As the three models in Table A4 below show, the results remain robust. The effect of conflict intensity on all three dependent variables is negative and reaches conventional statistical significance levels.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A9 Log-transformed independent variable. Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level.

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity (log)	-0.162^{***}	-0.134^{***}	-0.138^{***}
	(0.017)	(0.020)	(0.020)
Conflict intensity (t-12, log)	0.009	0.014	−0.023
	(0.017)	(0.020)	(0.019)
Age	0.002^{*}	0.002	0.003^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender	-0.293^{***}	-0.497^{***}	-0.297^{***}
	(0.032)	(0.040)	(0.038)
Pashtun	−0.007	−0.096	−0.043
	(0.052)	(0.064)	(0.062)
Radio ownership	0.058	0.189^{***}	0.122^{*}
	(0.040)	(0.049)	(0.048)
Rural/urban residency	0.128	0.120	0.147
	(0.070)	(0.088)	(0.084)
Opium (hectar district)	0.012	0.013	−0.009
	(0.014)	(0.017)	(0.016)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.257^{**}	-0.460^{***}	-0.622^{***}
	(0.095)	(0.119)	(0.115)
Population size (logged)	0.045	0.087	0.016
	(0.043)	(0.054)	(0.056)
Constant	0.864^{***}	1.064^{***}	1.369^{***}
	(0.242)	(0.301)	(0.306)
Observations (individuals)	31720	31720	31720
No. of districts	360	360	360
AIC	34058.857	25342.821	26453.190
BIC	34334.892	25618.856	26729.225

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

10.5 Independent Variable: Changing Temporal Vicinity

Next, we change the temporal vicinity of conflict exposure to show that the time period for which we measure our independent variable does not drive the results. Recall that our independent variable (conflict intensity) was constructed so that it provides information on the amount of fatalities that an individual has been exposed to in the district she/he is living in the 12 months leading up to the survey interview. Since this is a somewhat arbitrary threshold, we replicate our main models from Table 1 in the main text and change the time window for which we measure conflict intensity to 12-9, 9-6, 6-3, and 3-1 months prior to the survey interview. That is, we construct four separate independent variables and include all of them in the same model to control for violence happening in the other time windows simultaneously. Table A9 below shows that the results become less robust, though do not disappear altogether. The direction of the effect remains negative for all four time windows and models, but does not reach conventional statistical significance levels for all the windows within each model.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A10 Changes in temporal vicinity. Multi-level logistic regression with random intercepts applied at district-level

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity (0-3 months)	-0.010^{**}	-0.005	-0.019^{***}
	(0.003)	(0.004)	(0.004)
Conflict intensity (3-6 months)	-0.006^{***}	0.003	-0.003^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (6-9months)	-0.004^{***}	-0.003^{*}	-0.004^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (9-12 months)	-0.005^{***}	-0.008^{***}	-0.001
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.001^{*}	-0.001	-0.002^{***}
	(0.000)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Age	0.002^{*}	0.002	0.003^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender	-0.295^{***}	-0.499^{***}	-0.303^{***}
	(0.032)	(0.040)	(0.038)
Pashtun	-0.006	-0.094	-0.041
	(0.052)	(0.064)	(0.062)
Radio ownership	0.051	0.181^{***}	0.112^{*}
	(0.040)	(0.049)	(0.048)
Rural/urban residency	0.105	0.095	0.127
	(0.071)	(0.088)	(0.084)
Opium (hectar district)	0.007	0.011	-0.011
	(0.014)	(0.017)	(0.016)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.321^{***}	-0.513^{***}	-0.695^{***}
	(0.094)	(0.117)	(0.114)
Population size (logged)	0.051	0.092	0.022
	(0.044)	(0.054)	(0.057)
Constant	0.796^{***}	1.016^{***}	1.291^{***}
	(0.246)	(0.300)	(0.310)
Observations	31720	31720	31720
No. of districts	360	360	360
AIC	34060.089	25309.992	26434.982
BIC	34361.218	25611.122	26736.112

Standard errors in parentheses; $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

10.6 Ordered Multilevel Logistic Regression

To address the concern that collapsing the 4-step Likert-scale of our dependent variables could affect the results, we replicate the main models from Table 1 in the main text (Model 3 for police effectiveness, 6 for police procedural justice, and 9 for trust in police) using multi-level ordered logistic regressions. That is, we keep the original scale of our dependent variables, but reverse code trust in police so that higher levels indicate more trust, and lower levels less. Table A1 above gives an overview of the ordinal scales, and Table A8 shows that the results remain robust for all three dependent variables: conflict intensity continues to have a statistically significant negative effect on police effectiveness, procedural justice and trust.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A11 Multilevel ordered logistic regression with random intercepts at district-leve.

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	-0.005^{***}	-0.005^{***}	-0.004^{***}
	(0.000)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.002^{***}	-0.001	-0.001^{**}
	(0.000)	(0.000)	(0.000)
Age	0.001	0.001	0.001
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender	-0.226^{***}	-0.247^{***}	-0.201^{***}
	(0.024)	(0.025)	(0.025)
Pashtun	0.045	-0.028	-0.001
	(0.040)	(0.041)	(0.041)
Radio ownership	0.037	0.070^{*}	0.046
	(0.030)	(0.031)	(0.031)
Rural/urban residency	0.022	0.013	0.001
	(0.056)	(0.059)	(0.059)
Opium (hectar district)	0.008	-0.022	-0.018
	(0.011)	(0.012)	(0.012)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.328^{***}	-0.327^{***}	-0.568^{***}
	(0.080)	(0.084)	(0.086)
Population size (logged)	0.048	0.039	0.007
	(0.042)	(0.048)	(0.051)
Observations	31720	31720	31720
No. of districts	360	360	360
AIC	75081.975	66396.664	67002.140
BIC	75374.739	66689.429	67294.905

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Cut-off points are omitted from the table.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

10.7 Fixed Effects Logistic Regression

Next, we replicate the main models from Table 1 in the main text (Model 3 for police effectiveness, 6 for police procedural justice, and 9 for trust in police) but instead of employing a multilevel modelling approach with random intercepts at the district level, we use fixed-effects logistic regressions. Note that these models do not include district-invariant controls (population size), and that all districts that do not have variation on the dependent variable are omitted. Since these models cannot handle districts with large sample sizes, we exclude the district with the largest number of individuals from the analysis (Kabul City district, $N_{individuals}$=3,461). As Table A12 below shows, the results remain robust for all three dependent variables with conflict intensity having a negative and statistically significant effect. Note that we also run a logistic regression model with dummy variables indicating the district an individual resides in on the full sample (i.e. including Kabul City district), and the coefficients remain negative and statistically significant (results are omitted).

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A12 District-level fixed effects logistic regression.

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	-0.005^{***}	-0.004^{***}	-0.004^{***}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.001^{*}	-0.000	-0.001^{**}
	(0.000)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Age	0.003^{*}	0.003^{*}	0.003^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender	-0.268^{***}	-0.458^{***}	-0.253^{***}
	(0.033)	(0.042)	(0.040)
Pashtun	-0.029	-0.100	-0.073
	(0.058)	(0.074)	(0.070)
Radio ownership	0.078	0.226^{***}	0.181^{***}
	(0.043)	(0.053)	(0.051)
Rural/urban residency	0.071	0.070	0.108
	(0.073)	(0.092)	(0.086)
Opium (hectar district)	0.001	0.016	-0.007
	(0.016)	(0.019)	(0.018)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	0.194	0.038	-0.315^{*}
	(0.132)	(0.168)	(0.155)
Observations (individual)	28030	27340	27574
No. of districts	349	330	336
AIC	28357.405	20638.959	21824.269
BIC	28604.636	20885.442	22071.008

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

11 Accounting for Omitted Variable Bias

Table A13 shows the results from linear probability (OLS) models using binary outcomes for police effectiveness, police procedural justice, and trust in police that we use to calculate Altonji ratios (Altonji, Elder, and Taber 2005). Note that results remain robust to those reported in our main models in Table 1 in the main text where we use multilevel logistic regression models. We follow recent work on the effect of conflict exposure on individual-level attitudes (Henrich et al. 2019) and run for each dependent variable a restricted (only conflict intensity, fixed effects at district level and survey year dummies) and a full model (in addition all control variables). Both models include heteroskedasticity robust standard errors. Next, we calculate the Altonji ratio based on the following equation: $\hat{\beta}_{full}$/ ($\hat{\beta}_{res}$ - $\hat{\beta}_{full}$), whereby $\hat{\beta}_{res}$ represents the coefficient of conflict intensity from the restricted model, while $\hat{\beta}_{full}$ represents the coefficient from the full model. The corresponding value gives an indication for how many times stronger an unobserved confounder would need to be in relation to all included control variables in order for the effect of conflict intensity to be zero. The results indicates that unobserved confounders would need to be 11.70 (effectiveness), 9.55 (procedural justice) and 4.73 (trust) times stronger than all of our control variables combined.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A13 Linear probability models.

	Effectiveness		Proc. justice		Trust	
	Restricted	Full	Restricted	Full	Restricted	Full
Conflict intensity	−0.00120***	−0.00111***	−0.000794***	−0.000718***	−0.000777***	−0.000641***
	(0.000124)	(0.000127)	(0.000114)	(0.000116)	(0.000117)	(0.000121)
Conflict intensity (t-12)		−0.000297**		−0.000203*		−0.000366***
		(0.0000990)		(0.0000916)		(0.0000961)
Age		0.000375*		0.000237		0.000370*
		(0.000187)		(0.000154)		(0.000158)
Gender		−0.0479***		−0.0530***		−0.0341***
		(0.00537)		(0.00435)		(0.00449)
Ethnicity (individual)		−0.00146		−0.0112		−0.00527
		(0.00862)		(0.00671)		(0.00699)
Radio ownership		0.0113		0.0235***		0.0149**
		(0.00642)		(0.00529)		(0.00540)
Rural/urban residency		0.0126		0.00694		0.0132
		(0.0128)		(0.0104)		(0.0110)
Opium (hectar district)		0.000243		0.00222		−0.000372
		(0.00258)		(0.00217)		(0.00229)
Ethnicity (perc. district)		0.0300		0.00948		−0.0458*
		(0.0235)		(0.0183)		(0.0200)
Population size (logged)		16.77***		−1.167		3.320
		(4.595)		(0.619)		(3.298)
Constant	0.927***	−86.41***	0.921***	6.904*	0.956***	−16.44
	(0.0130)	(23.91)	(0.0114)	(3.213)	(0.0115)	(17.16)
Observations	31720	31720	31720	31720	31720	31720
Adjusted R^2	0.099	0.110	0.105	0.118	0.133	0.147

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$
All models include heteroskedasticity robust standard errors and district-level dummys.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

12 Testing Preference Falsification

Table A14 displays the proportion of individuals that answered "don't know" or refused to answer items measuring our dependent variables. The second column displays the total number of respondents in the respective group. The third column displays the total number of respondents that have chosen to answer with either "don't know" or have refused to answer. The fourth column displays the respective proportion. Note that "not affected" refers here to those individuals for which conflict intensity is zero (i.e. zero fatalities), while individuals experiencing the top 5% of conflict intensity are those with a fatality count of 94-314. The fourth column shows that preference falsification does not seem to be much of a concern. The proportion of item-non response to our three dependent variable is lower in the sample of the top 5% most conflict affected individuals compared to the sample of not-affected individuals. This means that individuals that are highly affected by conflict do not seem to opt more often for not responding to questions about the police.

Table A14 Item-non responses by exposure to conflict intensity.

	Number of individuals	Number of item non-responses	% of item non-responses
Not affected			
Police effectiveness	13308	328	2.46%
Police procedural justice	13308	98	0.74%
Trust in the police	13308	113	0.85%
Top 5% affected			
Police effectiveness	1867	22	1.18%
Police procedural justice	1867	4	0.21%
Trust in the police	1867	6	0.32%

Table A15 displays the average response to police effectiveness in fighting crime, procedural justice, and trust disaggregated by ethnic identity. An observable implication of preference falsification would be that individuals who are particularly concerned to be perceived as insurgent supporters should report more favorable perceptions of the police compared to individuals less concerned. We use ethnicity as a crude proxy to test this assumption, with Pashtuns potentially being more inclined to falsify their preferences. However, Pashtuns report on average less favorable perceptions of the police, alleviating preference falsification concerns.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A15 Average responses to outcome items by ethnicity

Variable	Mean (binary)	Mean (ordinal)	N
Non-Pashtuns			
Effectiveness	0.7816472	3.099435	17,861
Procedural Justice	0.8822574	3.35194	17,861
Trust in the police	0.8747552	3.334976	17,861
Pashtuns			
Effectiveness	0.6720543	2.828776	13,859
Procedural Justice	0.7803593	3.09373	13,859
Trust in the police	0.7450032	3.027203	13,859

13 Tests for Alternative Explanations

In the main manuscript we carry out a range of tests to assess possible alternative explanations for the observed relationship between higher levels of conflict intensity and more negative perceptions of the police. This section presents these tests in detail.

13.1 Government and ISAF Perceptions

One possible alternative explanation is that negative perceptions of the government (both central and local) and of ISAF troops are confounding variables that lead to higher levels of conflict intensity, and to lower perceptions of the police. It might also be that police perceptions are mere proxies of government and ISAF perceptions. That is, if individuals perceive negatively of the government and/or international troops, they might also perceive negatively of the police. If either of these alternative explanations hold true, we would expect that the effect of conflict intensity dissipates once we control for government and ISAF perceptions. We therefore provide additional tests where we include individual-level perceptions of these actors in our main models (M3, M6, and M9), using SoAP data. Since there are no survey items that ask directly about support for government institutions and international forces, we use those items that we believe to be the best proxies available in the SoAP data:

- To measure perceptions of the national government we use the following item: *"Thinking of the National Government, how do you feel about the way it is carrying out its responsi-*

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

bilities? Is it doing a very good job, somewhat good job, somewhat bad job or a very bad job?"

- To measure perceptions of the local government, we use the following item: *"Turning to your Provincial government, do you think that overall it is doing a very good job, somewhat good job, somewhat bad job or a very bad job?"*

- For international troops, we use the only available item: *"Now I will read you five different activities that you could participate in. Please, tell me, whether you would participate in the following activities with 'no fear', 'some fear' or a 'lot of fear'?... When encountering international forces"*

Only the survey items for the national and provincial government are available for the full time period (2008-2012) and we therefore rerun all three main models (M3, M6, and M9) with these variables included. The results remain robust, that is, conflict intensity continues to exert a negative and statistically significant effect on all three dependent variables (see Table A16).

The item asking about fear of international troops is only available for the years 2011 and 2012. We therefore run another test including ISAF perceptions, as well as government and provincial government perceptions, in our three main models using a subsample of our data. The number of districts consequently reduces to 320, and the number of individuals to 13,352. The results remain robust in that the direction of the effect remains negative for all three dependent variables (see Table A17. However, the coefficient for trust does not reach conventional statistical significant levels. While this should be kept in mind as a caveat, we cannot say with certainty whether this is due to the inclusion of ISAF perceptions in our model, or due to the fact that we analyze a subsample of our analysis. All six models from Table A16 and A17 taken together, however, increase our confidence that perceptions of central and local government, as well as of ISAF troops do, neither seem to confound the relationship between conflict intensity and police perceptions, nor do police perceptions seem to be mere proxies of perceptions of these actors.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A16 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level; controlling for central and local government.

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	-0.004^{***}	-0.004^{***}	-0.004^{***}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.002^{**}	-0.001	-0.002^{***}
	(0.000)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Government perception			
Somewhat bad job	0.333^{***}	0.440^{***}	0.451^{***}
	(0.060)	(0.065)	(0.066)
Somewhat good job	0.970^{***}	1.360^{***}	1.262^{***}
	(0.059)	(0.064)	(0.065)
Very good job	1.464^{***}	1.714^{***}	1.666^{***}
	(0.071)	(0.085)	(0.083)
Provincial government perception			
Somewhat bad job	0.169^{*}	0.316^{***}	0.348^{***}
	(0.068)	(0.072)	(0.073)
Somewhat good job	0.874^{***}	1.233^{***}	1.066^{***}
	(0.065)	(0.070)	(0.071)
Very good job	1.409^{***}	1.793^{***}	1.601^{***}
	(0.073)	(0.083)	(0.082)
Age	0.002	0.002	0.003^{*}
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Gender	-0.226^{***}	-0.425^{***}	-0.217^{***}
	(0.034)	(0.043)	(0.041)
Pashtun	-0.015	-0.110	-0.035
	(0.055)	(0.070)	(0.067)
Radio ownership	-0.013	0.066	0.002
	(0.042)	(0.053)	(0.051)
Rural/urban residency	0.056	0.009	0.040
	(0.073)	(0.092)	(0.088)
Opium (hectar district)	-0.011	-0.017	-0.042^{*}
	(0.015)	(0.018)	(0.017)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.246^{**}	-0.444^{***}	-0.639^{***}
	(0.093)	(0.116)	(0.116)
Population size (logged)	0.049	0.088	0.017
	(0.039)	(0.047)	(0.053)
Constant	-0.607^{**}	-0.740^{**}	-0.331
	(-2.60)	(-2.65)	(-1.09)
Observations (individuals)	30547	30547	30547
No. of districts	360	360	360
AIC	30505.932	21718.766	23329.636
BIC	30830.685	22043.520	23654.389

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A17 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level; controlling for government and ISAF perceptions (2011-2012).

	Effectiveness	Proc. justice	Trust
	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	−0.007***	−0.006**	−0.000
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	0.003*	0.002	−0.001
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Isaf perceptions			
			(.)
Some fear	−0.169*	−0.281**	−0.058
	(0.068)	(0.088)	(0.079)
A lot of fear	−0.357***	−0.393***	−0.237**
	(0.070)	(0.090)	(0.081)
Government perceptions			
Somewhat bad job	0.402***	0.502***	0.579***
	(0.099)	(0.107)	(0.106)
Somewhat good job	1.142***	1.463***	1.383***
	(0.096)	(0.106)	(0.104)
Very god job	1.792***	1.888***	1.813***
	(0.120)	(0.143)	(0.133)
Provincial government perception			
Somewhat bad job	0.506***	0.832***	0.701***
	(0.115)	(0.119)	(0.119)
Somewhat good job	1.155***	1.778***	1.495***
	(0.111)	(0.116)	(0.116)
Very good job	1.673***	2.371***	1.989***
	(0.122)	(0.138)	(0.131)
Age	0.000	0.003	0.005*
	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Gender	−0.275***	−0.607***	−0.203**
	(0.056)	(0.073)	(0.066)
Pashtun	0.064	−0.084	0.176
	(0.093)	(0.117)	(0.108)
Radio ownership	0.041	0.050	−0.060
	(0.069)	(0.089)	(0.082)
Rural/urban residency	−0.056	0.199	−0.225
	(0.119)	(0.152)	(0.135)
Opium (hectar district)	0.026	0.041	−0.048
	(0.029)	(0.035)	(0.033)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	−0.418**	−0.593**	−0.926***
	(0.155)	(0.187)	(0.184)
Population size (logged)	0.016	0.056	0.026
	(0.057)	(0.063)	(0.069)
Observations (individuals)	13352	13352	13352
No. of districts	320	320	320
AIC	12651.605	8849.920	10182.719
BIC	12936.583	9134.898	10467.697

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

13.2 Civilian Loyalties

A second concern is that the results presented in the main manuscript might be due to differences in civilian loyalties, and not due to a shift in policing. For instance, individuals that are anti-government might lower their perceptions of the police in response to high conflict intensity not because the police operates differently, but because they blame the police for casualties stemming from fighting with insurgent groups. While our main measure of conflict intensity excludes collateral civilian casualties, it is still possible that government violence directed against insurgents undermines perceptions of the police among individuals that have sympathies with insurgents. An observable implication of government resentments/insurgency support driving our findings would be that the negative effect of conflict intensity should only hold for individuals that are anti-government/insurgency supporters. Importantly, this effect should be dominant and drive the total effect of conflict intensity when pooling insurgent supporters and non-supporters.

We test whether this is the case by rerunning all main models (M3, M6, and M9) on a split sample: one containing individuals that can be classified as "pro-government," and the other containing individuals that can be classified as "anti-government." As the SoAP does not include a variable asking individuals directly about support for the government or insurgents, we use the item that presents the best proxy available: *"Thinking of the National Government, how do you feel about the way it is carrying out its responsibilities? Is it doing a very good job, somewhat good job, somewhat bad job or a very bad job?"* We code this variable as a binary measure of government support: Individuals responding "somewhat bad" or "very bad" are coded as anti-government (and might be insurgent supporters), while individuals responding "somewhat good" and "very good" are coded as pro-government. We acknowledge that this is an imperfect proxy, but believe that it nevertheless contains relevant information about political preferences. We also control for whether or not an individual is Pashtun, which further proxies insurgent support (though imperfect). Table A18 shows that conflict intensity continues to have a negative and statistically significant effect on all three dependent variables in the subsample of government supporters. Interestingly, the coefficient for conflict intensity (though estimated with less certainty due to a smaller sample size) only

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

reaches conventional statistical significance levels for police effectiveness (M3) in the subsample of individuals that are anti-government. These two tests indicate that the effect of conflict intensity in the full sample cannot be driven by individuals with resentments against the government, and therefore alleviate concerns about civilian loyalties as an alternative explanation.

Table A18 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level; split sample based on political preferences.

	Pro-government			Anti-government		
	M3	M6	M9	M3	M6	M9
Conflict intensity	-0.005^{***}	-0.005^{***}	-0.005^{***}	-0.003^{**}	-0.001	-0.001
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Conflict intensity (t-12)	-0.002^{**}	-0.002^{*}	-0.003^{***}	-0.000	0.000	-0.001
	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)	(0.001)
Age	0.002	0.000	0.003	0.003	0.003	0.004
	(0.001)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)	(0.002)
Pashtun	-0.026	-0.080	-0.007	-0.016	-0.159	-0.096
	(0.066)	(0.091)	(0.085)	(0.090)	(0.099)	(0.100)
Gender	-0.168^{***}	-0.385^{***}	-0.092	-0.452^{***}	-0.590^{***}	-0.467^{***}
	(0.040)	(0.055)	(0.051)	(0.058)	(0.065)	(0.066)
Radio ownership	-0.091	-0.008	-0.041	0.079	0.156^{*}	0.111
	(0.052)	(0.072)	(0.067)	(0.068)	(0.075)	(0.077)
Rural/urban residency	0.035	0.002	0.100	0.155	0.066	-0.023
	(0.088)	(0.117)	(0.107)	(0.124)	(0.140)	(0.144)
Opium (hectar district)	0.009	0.019	-0.047^{*}	-0.055^{*}	-0.079^{**}	-0.058
	(0.017)	(0.022)	(0.021)	(0.026)	(0.028)	(0.030)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	-0.241^{*}	-0.464^{**}	-0.657^{***}	-0.580^{***}	-0.662^{***}	-0.846^{***}
	(0.112)	(0.146)	(0.142)	(0.146)	(0.170)	(0.177)
Population size (logged)	0.021	0.066	0.035	0.100	0.120	0.005
	(0.047)	(0.055)	(0.061)	(0.056)	(0.069)	(0.077)
Constant	1.513^{***}	1.906^{***}	2.145^{***}	0.292	0.633	0.845
	(5.52)	(5.75)	(6.11)	(0.88)	(1.59)	(0.434)
Observations (individuals)	23036	23036	23036	8684	8684	8684
No. of districts	360	360	360	250	350	350
AIC	21835.725	13945.678	15605.010	10649.160	9503.148	9166.159
BIC	22101.204	14211.157	15870.489	10882.445	9736.433	9399.444

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

13.3 Crime and Conflict Intensity

A final alternative explanation for our findings could be that higher levels of conflict intensity lead to more crime, and therefore to lower perceptions of the police. An observable implication of this alternative explanation would be that conflict intensity at t_{-1} should positively predict crime at *t*. We therefore regress individual-level exposure to crime during the last 12 month on previous conflict intensity (i.e. 24 to 12 month prior to the interview date to ensure that conflict intensity is measured before crime) while controlling for all covariates that are included in our main models (M3, M6, and M9). We use individual-level exposure to crime, as there are no reliable crime statistics for Afghanistan. More specifically, we use an item battery from the SoAP that asks individuals the following question: *"What kinds of violence or crimes did you or someone in your family experience in the past year?"* We select those items that are clearly linked to ordinary crime (physical attacks/beatings, racketeering/extortion, burglary, pick-pocketing, motor vehicle/property theft, and livestock theft), while excluding those that are linked to the armed conflict (such as"army actions" or "militants/insurgent actions"). We create a dichotomous variable that takes on the value 1 if an individual has been exposed to any of the crimes mentioned above, and 0 if not exposed to any. As Table A19 shows, we find that conflict intensity exerts a negative effect that does not reach conventional statistical significance levels. That is, the effect is not in line with what we would have expected if the suggested alternative explanation were producing our results.

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

Table A19 Multilevel logistic regression with random intercepts at district-level. Conflict intensity as predictor of crime.

	M1
Conflict intensity (t-12)	−0.001
	(0.001)
Age	−0.000
	(0.001)
gender	0.060
	(0.039)
Pashtun	−0.059
	(0.068)
Radio ownership	0.085
	(0.053)
Rural/urban residency	−0.095
	(0.084)
Opium (hectar district)	0.001
	(0.016)
Ethnicity (perc. district)	0.854***
	(0.107)
Population size (logged)	0.005
	(0.042)
Constant	−2.388***
	(0.260)
Observations (individuals)	31720
No. of districts	360
AIC	24418.897
BIC	24686.567

Standard errors in parentheses; * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$, *** $p < 0.001$

Copyright The Southern Political Science Association 2019. Preprint (not copyedited or formatted).
Please use DOI when citing or quoting. DOI: https://doi.org/10.1086/711559

References

Altonji, Joseph G., Todd E. Elder, and Christopher R. Taber. 2005. "Selection on Observed and Unobserved Variables: Assessing the Effectiveness of Catholic Schools." *Journal of Political Economy* 113 (1): 151–184.

Eck, Kristine. 2012. "In Data We Trust? A Comparison of UCDP GED and ACLED Conflict Events Datasets." *Cooperation and Conflict* 47 (1): 124–141.

Gelman, Andrew, and Jennifer Hill. 2006. *Data Analysis Using Regression and Multilevel/Hierarchical Models*. New York: Cambridge University Press.

Henrich, Joseph, Michal Bauer, Alessandra Cassar, Julie Chytilová, and Benjamin Grant Purzycki. 2019. "War Increases Religiosity." *Nature Human Behaviour* 3 (2): 129–135.

Raleigh, Clionadh, Andrew Linke, Håvard Hegre, and Joakim Karlsen. 2010. "Introducing ACLED: An Armed Conflict Location and Event Dataset: Special Data Feature." *Journal of peace research* 47 (5): 651–660.

Schutte, Sebastian. 2017. "Violence and Civilian Loyalties: Evidence From Afghanistan." *Journal of Conflict Resolution* 61 (8): 1595–1625.

Weidmann, Nils B. 2016. "A Closer Look At Reporting Bias in Conflict Event Data." *American Journal of Political Science* 60 (1): 206–218.